

EU and NATO Enlargement Puzzles

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Abstract

Enlargements of the European Union (EU) and the North Atlantic Treaty Organization (NATO) present major puzzles. While many post-communist countries, such as Poland, the Czech Republic, Romania, Bulgaria, Bosnia, Albania, and the Baltic States were granted a membership or a prospect of membership in these organizations, a number of post-communist countries located in Europe, such as Russia, Belarus, Moldova, and Azerbaijan, were not offered prospects of membership even when they would satisfy official criteria for joining the EU and NATO. Some countries, such as Ukraine and Georgia, were officially recognized as potential members of NATO, but not the European Union. The question is, which factors account for such significant variation in the accession to the EU and NATO among European post-communist countries. Previous studies explained the exclusion of certain post-communist countries by their failure to meet such formal and informal EU membership criteria as having a liberal democracy, a European location and identity, a Western Christian religious tradition, a high level of economic development, a relatively small population size, and popular as well as government support from the EU's prospective and most influential existing members. Similarly, NATO accession studies emphasized such criteria as democracy, peaceful resolution of internal ethnic conflicts or territorial disputes, and the ability to meet NATO military standards. This paper uses comparative and multiple regression analysis to determine which factors affect the European Union and NATO membership of 25 European post-communist countries. The EU accession index and the NATO accession index are derived from the status of each country as a member, as a candidate, as a potential candidate, and as a non-member/not a potential candidate. Such factors, as the level of democracy, the economic level of development, religion, post-Soviet region, population size, violent conflicts, and public support for EU or NATO membership, are

analyzed. The study shows that the level of democracy and the economic development level have positive effects on EU accession, while being a post-Soviet country has a negative effect.

Similarly, the level of democracy positively affects NATO accession, but post-Soviet states have a negative likelihood of admission into NATO when all other factors are held constant.

EU and NATO Enlargement Puzzles

Enlargements of the European Union (EU) and the North Atlantic Treaty Organization (NATO) present major puzzles. Such post-communist countries as Poland, the Czech Republic, Hungary, Slovakia, Romania, Bulgaria, Slovenia, Estonia, Latvia, and Lithuania became members of both the EU and NATO. Albania and Croatia joined NATO, but their accession to the EU lagged behind. These two countries along with Serbia, Macedonia, Montenegro, Bosnia, and Kosovo were recognized by the European Commission as either candidate countries or potential candidates. Bosnia, Macedonia, Montenegro, and Serbia achieved similar status in their accession to NATO. Ukraine and Georgia were officially recognized as potential members of NATO, but not the European Union. In contrast, many other post-communist countries located fully or partly in Europe, such as Russia, Belarus, Moldova, Azerbaijan, and Kazakhstan, were not even offered prospects of membership in these organizations in the future when they were to satisfy all official criteria for joining the EU and NATO.

Which factors account for such significant variation in the accession of the EU and NATO among European post-communist countries? Researchers and policy-makers explained the exclusion of certain post-communist countries by their failure to meet such formal and informal EU membership criteria as having a liberal democracy, a European location and identity, a Western Christian religion, a high level of economic development, a relatively small population size, and popular support as well as government support from the EU's prospective and most influential existing members. Similarly, NATO accession studies emphasized such criteria as democracy, peaceful resolution of violent internal ethnic conflicts or territorial disputes, and the ability to meet NATO military standards.

Previous studies primarily examined accession or non-accession of individual post-communist countries or relatively small groups of these countries. For instance, Grabbe concluded that, “Belarus is too authoritarian, Moldova too poor, Ukraine too large, and Russia too scary for the EU to contemplate offering membership any time soon.”¹ Quantitative analysis of determinants of accession of all post-communist states that qualified or can potentially qualify for EU and NATO membership is lacking. (See, for example, Schimmelfennig and Sedelmeier, 2005).

The Maastricht Treaty, adopted in 1992, specifies that any European country which respects principles set by the EU may apply to become its member.² In 1993, the European Council adopted the “Copenhagen criteria.” To gain an EU membership, candidates are required to satisfy the following criteria:

stability of institutions guaranteeing democracy, the rule of law, human rights and respect for and protection of minorities, the existence of a functioning market economy as well as the capacity to cope with competitive pressure and market forces within the Union. Membership presupposes the candidate’s ability to take on the obligations of membership including adherence to the aims of political, economic and monetary union. The Union’s capacity to absorb new members, while maintaining the momentum of European integration, is also an important consideration in the general interest of both the Union and the candidate countries.³

Similarly, the Washington Treaty, which was adopted by founding members of NATO in 1949, states that “the Parties may, by unanimous agreement, invite any other European State in a position to further the principles of this Treaty and to contribute to the security of the North Atlantic area to accede to this Treaty.”⁴ In 1995, the North Atlantic Treaty Organization specified in the “Study on NATO Enlargement” that aspiring members of the alliance must be

democracies, peacefully settle ethnic conflicts and territorial disputes, and be able to contribute militarily to NATO.⁵ The “Copenhagen criteria” and the “Study on NATO Enlargement” were issued primarily to formalize accession of potential members among post-communist states in Central and Eastern Europe.

Some studies argue that there is a reverse causation in the relationship between the level of democracy and European Union accession. Prospects of EU membership promote democratization of post-communist countries because existence of democratic institutions is a precondition for joining the European Union (See Schimmelfennig and Scholtz., 2010; Way and Levitsky, 2007). However, these studies fail to explain why the market economy conditionality in European Union accession did not have a similar effect. All European post-communist countries, both EU aspirants and countries that are not recognized as potential candidates, transformed their state-controlled centrally planned economies into market economies. Other studies show that NATO accession does not promote democratization in spite of similar democracy conditionality in joining this organization (see, for example, Reiter, 2001).

In addition, weak support among the public and the ruling elite in such post-communist countries as Russia, Belarus, and Ukraine is often cited by scholars and policy-makers as another factor hindering their EU and NATO accession (See, for example, White, McAllister, Light, and Löwenhardt, 2002). However, survey data show that the absolute majorities, excluding the undecided, of Russians, Belarusians, and Ukrainians consistently and by wide margins supported EU membership of their countries in the 2000s (Katchanovski, 2008; White, McAllister, and Feklyunina, 2010). Popular opinion concerning NATO membership in Russia, Belarus, and Ukraine varied significantly after the collapse of communism. Public opposition to NATO membership in Russia and Belarus following the NATO-led war in Kosovo and in Ukraine since

the US-led war in Iraq 2003 outweighed support for joining the alliance, but public opinion on this issue in these post-Soviet states following 9/11 was either split more evenly or relatively favorable. (See Katchanovski, 2008; McAllister and White, 2002; White, McAllister, and Feklyunina, 2010).

Russian President Boris Yeltsin in 1991 and President Vladimir Putin in 2000 both voiced their desire to join NATO. Belarus, Armenia, and Kazakhstan were likely to follow Russia in joining NATO since they were Russia's allies. Even though the Russian government did not express interest in becoming a member of the European Union, President Putin stated that he would have been pleased if Russia were to get an invitation to join this organization since he considered Russians to be culturally and mentally European.⁶ EU membership was backed by the last three presidents of Ukraine. While Victor Yanukovych officially renounced President Yushchenko's goal of joining NATO after becoming President of Ukraine in 2010, Yanukovych and his Party of Regions supported President Kuchma's declaration to seek such a membership in 2002.

The Georgian government after the "Rose Revolution" in 2004 made EU and NATO membership one of its major foreign policy priorities, and the majority of public, excluding secessionist regions of Abkhazia and South Ossetia, supported this goal. In Moldova, excluding the secessionist Transnistrian Republic, EU and NATO memberships were backed by the absolute majority of people (White, McAllister, Light, and Löwenhardt, 2002; McAllister and White, 2002). The ruling coalition, which came to power in Moldova after the July 2009 parliamentary elections, called itself the Alliance for European Integration to emphasize its foreign policy priorities. Kazakhstan and Armenian officials expressed potential interest in EU

membership for their countries. Polls show that the Armenia public supported the EU integration.⁷

However, the European Union, and most leaders of its major member-countries, opposed not only membership to these post-Soviet states, but also even formal recognition of the right of these countries to join this organization in the future when they would fulfill all formal requirements for membership.⁸ For example, European Union's Foreign Affairs Commissioner Javier Solana stated in 2009 that Ukraine would not become an EU member in the foreseeable future, in contrast to Albania.⁹ Similarly, NATO refused to acknowledge the right of Russia and other post-Soviet states, with the exceptions of the Baltic States and Ukraine and Georgia, to join this organization.

Such policy of exclusion of certain post-communist countries and integration of other post-communist states represents a major puzzle for other reasons. Lasas (2010) argues that EU and NATO integration of post-communist countries was ideologically driven and presented restitution to these countries for the 1938 Munich Agreement, the 1939 Soviet-Nazi pact, and the 1945 Yalta-Potsdam conferences. However, this theory cannot explain the exclusion of such post-communist countries as Ukraine, Moldova and Belarus from the same waves of EU and NATO enlargement since these post-Soviet countries were also affected by the Soviet-Nazi pact. In addition, the historical restitution theory fails to explain why the restitution centers on these particular World War II related agreements and ignores World War II itself. It is puzzling that major powers of NATO and/or the EU, such as the US, the UK, and France, were reluctant to encourage NATO or EU membership of Soviet successor countries, such as Russia, Ukraine, and Belarus, which were allied with them during the war and experienced Nazi-led genocide, and

instead would reward such countries as Hungary, Romania, Bulgaria, Slovakia, and Croatia that assisted Nazi Germany in conducting an aggressive genocidal war.

EU and NATO memberships for the post-Soviet countries would have not only offered economic, political, and security benefits to these countries, but also to members of the European Union and NATO since the former Soviet Union and its successor states played a crucial role in the end of communism and the Cold War. In addition, Ukraine, Belarus, and Kazakhstan voluntarily renounced nuclear weapons that were left after the collapse of the Soviet Union, while Russia significantly reduced its nuclear arsenal. These ongoing benefits to EU and NATO members outweigh potential future costs of accession of the European post-Soviet states. Moreover, the exclusion of these states from the EU and NATO enlargement creates an economically, politically, and militarily divided Europe.

In addition, prospective members of the European Union and NATO could have promoted the peaceful resolution of conflicts involving the secessionist states of Chechnya in Russia, Transdniestria in Moldova, South Ossetia and Abkhazia in Georgia, and Nagorno Karabakh in Azerbaijan. Conflict resolution considerations were offered as a rationale for EU and NATO accession of the Balkan states, such as Bosnia, Serbia, Macedonia, and Kosovo. For example, the European Union declared Kosovo as its potential member even though this secessionist state was not recognized by some EU members, such as Spain and Romania. In contrast, the EU did not offer such prospects to similar secessionist states of Transdniestria, South Ossetia, Abkhazia, and Nagorno Karabakh.

Hypotheses

This paper uses comparative and multiple regression analyses to determine which factors affect the EU and NATO membership status of 25 post-communist countries that are considered fully or partly European. It tests several hypotheses which are based both on official criteria of the enlargement of these organizations and on previous studies which identified other factors of EU and NATO accession. The first hypothesis is that the level of democracy is a major factor of EU and NATO accession of the post-communist states. For example, EU and NATO memberships of such countries as Poland, Hungary, the Czech Republic, and Slovenia were often attributed to their democratic political systems after the collapse of communism.

The second hypothesis is that religious tradition affects the membership prospects in EU and NATO. Both these organizations are often associated with Western civilization since they were founded by Western countries. Western civilization is frequently equated with Western Christianity (Huntington, 1996). The clash of civilizations theory implies that predominantly Protestant and Catholic post-communist nations have significantly better prospects for NATO accession compared to Muslim or Orthodox Christian countries. Because of NATO involvement in the war in Afghanistan and the US- and UK- led invasion of Iraq, NATO is often perceived as being hostile to Muslim countries in spite of a NATO-led war in support of the Kosovo Albanians. Similarly, prejudice against Muslims is often cited as a major factor that hinders Turkey's membership in the European Union.

The third hypothesis tested in this study states that Russia and other post-Soviet countries are discriminated against in terms of EU and NATO accession because of lingering anti-Russian prejudice in many of their major member-countries that exercise most influence on the enlargement process. Western perceptions, particularly American and British perceptions, and policies towards the Russian Empire and the Soviet Union historically were often very

negative and irrational (See Davis and Trani, 2009; Malia, 1999). This bias, which goes back to the times of the Russian Empire and the Cold War, manifested itself in post-Cold war policy towards Russia of such countries as the United States and the United Kingdom. (See Lieven, 2000; Tsygankov, 2009). The anti-Russian bias extends to post-Soviet countries since they, like the Soviet Union and the Russian Empire, are often associated in the West with Russia. The Baltic States are exceptions because they were perceived as distinct from Russia, both at the time of the Soviet Union and in the post-Soviet period.

Comparative analysis of survey data show that, on average, EU and NATO accession of post-Soviet countries, excluding the Baltic States, receives less public support in leading members of these organizations than the accession of other post-communist nations. For example, in the 2009 Pew Research Center's Global Attitudes Project survey, the unweighted average of 61% and 45% of the respondents in the United Kingdom, France, and Germany respectively favored the admittance, of Croatia and Serbia in the European Union in the next ten years. In comparison, 47% and 42% of the respondents in these three leading EU countries backed the EU membership of Ukraine and Georgia, respectively. (Two Decades, 2009, pp. 145-147). In the TNS Sofres Survey in November 2005, the unweighted average of 46% and 42% of the respondents in the UK, France, and Germany respectively backed the EU membership of Ukraine and Russia when they fulfill all conditions for the admission.¹⁰ Similarly, the 1998 Attitudes on Transatlantic Issues Survey showed that 51% and 57% of Americans supported the NATO membership of Russia and Ukraine, while 41% and 30% opposed (respectively). In comparison, the unweighted average of 62% favored and 26% opposed the admission of Bulgaria, Romania, Slovakia, the Czech Republic, Hungary, and Poland.

The European Union is often implicitly or explicitly equated with Europe. Europe is frequently defined as a continent with no clear eastern borders (See, for instance, Pagden, 2002). Such post-Soviet countries as Russia, Ukraine, Moldova, Belarus Kazakhstan, Georgia, Azerbaijan, and Armenia, are often regarded as non-European in terms of their location and identity, and consequently ineligible for EU and NATO memberships. For example, TNS Sofres Survey in March 2005 showed that only 44% of the respondents in the UK, 54% in Germany, and 63% in France consider Ukraine to be a part of Europe geographically, historically, and culturally, while 27% in the UK, 39% in Germany, and 32% in France regard Ukraine as non-European.¹¹

However, Turkey, which has a small fraction of its territory and population in Europe, was accepted into NATO, and it was granted official candidate status by the EU in contrast to Russia and Kazakhstan, which are also located partly in Europe. The European Union accepted Greek-populated Cyprus as its member although Cyprus is often located in Asia and not Europe. Likewise, Armenia, Azerbaijan, and Georgia are variously included geographically into Europe or Asia or, in the case of Georgia and Azerbaijan, a small part of their territory is often located in Europe.

In addition, the post-Soviet states are already members of other European organizations. Russia, Ukraine, Moldova, Armenia, Azerbaijan, and Georgia are members of the Council of Europe, and the right of Kazakhstan as a partly European country to join the Council of Europe is officially recognized by this organization. All of these post-Soviet countries, along with Belarus, are also participating states of the Organization for Security and Co-operation in Europe. As noted, the issue of European or non-European location of Georgia did not prevent NATO from officially recognizing this post-Soviet state as its potential member.

Survey data show that European identity is embraced by a significant percentage of people in Russia, Ukraine, Moldova, and Belarus. For example, the proportion of the respondents who thought of themselves to at least some extent as European ranged in the 2000s between one-quarter and one-half in Russia, between one-third and one-half in Belarus, and between one-quarter and one-third in Ukraine (White, McAllister, and Feklyunina, 2010). The levels of European self-identification in these post-Soviet nations are comparable to many EU members. For example, the 2009 Pew Research Center's Global Attitudes Project survey demonstrates that the proportion of people in Russia (4%) and Ukraine (6%) who think of themselves first as European is not radically different from such EU members as Hungary (4%), the Czech Republic and Lithuania (6%), the United Kingdom (7%), and Bulgaria and Poland (8%) (Two Decades, 2009, p. 145).

Another hypothesis tested in this study is that the level of economic development is a significant predictor of both EU and NATO enlargement among post-communist countries. Potential members with high levels of GDP per capita require less economic aid from the European Union. Similarly, post-communist countries with a higher level of economic development are more likely to satisfy the NATO condition of being able to contribute militarily.

Other factors that are considered in this study are specific to the particular organization. Violent internal and external conflicts after the collapse of communism are expected to affect negatively accession to NATO. The population size is likely to be a negative factor in the EU enlargement since EU governance gives weight to its member countries according to their population size. Because of their rational self-interest, existing EU members would be much more reluctant to support accession of countries with a large population than countries with a small population.

Data

Accession to the European Union and the North Atlantic Treaty Organization is a lengthy process involving various steps. Therefore, the integration of post-communist countries into these organizations is measured with the help of indexes that reflect each major step of the accession. The EU accession index and the NATO accession index are derived from the status of each country as a member, an official candidate, an official potential candidate, and non-member/not potential candidate as of August 2010. The NATO accession index ranges from 0 (non-member and not officially recognized by NATO as a potential candidate) to 3 (member-country). A country which is formally recognized as a potential future member of NATO or offered an “Intensified Dialogue” is given score of 1. An official candidate country that was offered a “Membership Action Plan” has a score of 2 in the NATO accession index. Similarly, the EU accession index measures status of each post-communist country as a “non-member/not potential candidate” (0), a “potential candidate recognized by the European Commission” (1), an “official candidate” (2), and a “member of the European Union” (3). (See Table 1).

The EU accession index and the NATO accession index are the dependent variables in a multiple regression analysis of the determinants for integration of 25 European post-communist countries into these organizations. The independent variables include the Freedom House democracy index, the GDP per capita, religious composition of the population, the post-Soviet region dummy variable, the Baltic States dummy variable, the population size, and the violent internal and external conflicts since 1991 dummy variable. (See Table 2).

[Table 1 and 2 about here]

Multivariate analysis

The multiple regression analysis shows that the level of democracy has a positive effect on the NATO accession of the 25 post-communist countries. This variable is the biggest determinant of the NATO enlargement since it has the biggest standardized regression coefficient, and it is statistically significant at the .05 level. Predominantly Western Christian or Muslim countries do not differ significantly from other post-communist countries in their NATO accession. The level of economic development and recent or ongoing violent conflicts do not have statistically significant effects on the NATO accession index. In contrast, European post-Soviet countries, excluding the Baltic States, have a negative likelihood of admission into NATO when the other factors are held constant. (Table 3).

Similarly, the level of democracy positively affects the EU accession of the European post-communist states. This variable is statistically significant at the .1 level only in one regression model, and the size of its effect on the European Union enlargement is smaller compared to the level of economic development and the post-Soviet dummy variable. The democracy level becomes a statistically significant predictor of the EU accession in both regression models when the Freedom House democracy index of 1993 is used instead of the 2009 democracy index. This indicates that a reverse causation is unlikely to account for the relationship between the EU integration and democracy among the post-communist states. (Table 4).

[Table 3 and 4 about here]

The level of the GDP per capita, measured in purchasing power parity, positively affects EU integration, while being a post-Soviet state has a negative effect on European Union accession. The post-Soviet variable has the biggest effect on the EU accession index. Its standardized regression coefficient is the largest, and this variable is statistically significant at the .01 level. Being a predominantly Western Christian or Muslim country does not affect the

European Union enlargement.¹² The population size is also a statistically insignificant determinant of EU accession. (See Table 4).

There is no significant multicollinearity problem in the regression analysis. The highest correlation coefficient among the independent variables is between the Freedom House index of democracy in 2009 and the post-Soviet dummy variable (-.77). Both of these variables are statistically significant in two NATO and one EU accession regression models.

Conclusion

The enlargements of the European Union and the North Atlantic Treaty Organization produced major puzzles that are examined in this paper. While many post-communist countries were granted a membership or a prospect of membership in these organizations, many other European post-communist countries were not offered EU and NATO membership or prospects of membership even when they satisfied official criteria for joining these organizations. Previous studies explained the exclusion of certain post-communist countries by their failure to meet such formal and informal EU and NATO membership criteria of having a democracy, a market economy, a European location or identity, Western Christianity, a high level of economic development, popular and government support of prospective members and major existing members, a small population size in the case of EU accession, and a peaceful resolution of internal ethnic conflicts or territorial disputes in case of NATO accession.

This paper used comparative and multiple regression analysis to examine factors which explain these puzzles of the European Union and NATO enlargements. The comparative analysis shows that popular opinion in major EU and NATO members is, on average, less supportive of admitting the post-Soviet countries, excluding the Baltic States, compared to other post-

communist countries. In contrast, the majorities of the respondents and governments in the post-Soviet nations back the EU membership of their countries, while the support for NATO accession among the public and the governments of the post-Soviet was generally much lower and more volatile.

The multivariate analysis shows that the level of democracy has positive effects on the EU and NATO accession of 25 European post-communist countries. Being a post-Soviet country, excluding the Baltic States, has a negative effect on both the European Union and NATO accessions when all other factors are held constant. The level of economic development positively affects the EU integration. Other factors, such as predominantly Western Christian or Muslim religious tradition, the population size in the case of the EU, and the violent internal or external conflicts in the case of NATO, are not statistically significant predictors of the accession.

In contrast to other post-communist countries in Europe, European post-Soviet states, with the exception of the Baltic States, face bleak prospects of the European Union and NATO integration even when they would satisfy all official criteria for the EU and NATO accession. This study implies that Europe is likely to remain divided in the foreseeable future, since many European post-Soviet countries, such as Russia, Ukraine, Belarus, Moldova, and Georgia, are de-facto excluded from NATO and/or European Union enlargement.

Table 1. NATO and EU accession of European post-communist states

Country	NATO accession index	EU accession index
Albania	3	1
Armenia	0	0
Azerbaijan	0	0
Belarus	0	0
Bosnia-Herzegovina	2	1
Bulgaria	3	3
Croatia	3	2
Czech Republic	3	3
Estonia	3	3
Georgia	1	0
Hungary	3	3
Kazakhstan	0	0
Kosovo	0	1
Latvia	3	3
Lithuania	3	3
Macedonia	2	2
Moldova	0	0
Montenegro	1	1
Poland	3	3
Romania	3	3
Russia	0	0
Serbia	1	1
Slovakia	3	3
Slovenia	3	3
Ukraine	1	0

Table 2. Independent variables of EU and NATO accession

Country	Freedom House Democracy Index 2009*	GDP per capita 2009 (ppp), \$**	Western Christians, %***	Muslim country ***	Post- Soviet state	Baltic States	Violent conflicts	Population 2008, million****
Albania	6	7164	10	1	0	0	0	3.1
Armenia	10	4966	0	0	1	0	1	3.1
Azerbaijan	11	9564	0	1	1	0	1	8.7
Belarus	13	12737	14	0	1	0	0	9.7
Bosnia-Herzegovina	7	7361	19	1	0	0	1	3.8
Bulgaria	4	11900	1	0	0	0	0	7.6
Croatia	3	17703	77	0	0	0	1	4.4
Czech Republic	2	24093	44	0	0	0	0	10.4
Estonia	2	17908	68	0	0	1	0	1.3
Georgia	8	4757	0	0	1	0	1	4.4
Hungary	2	18567	93	0	0	0	0	10
Kazakhstan	11	11693	5	1	1	0	0	15.7
Kosovo	9	2500	0	1	0	0	1	2.1
Latvia	3	14255	63	0	0	1	0	2.3
Lithuania	2	16542	70	0	0	1	0	3.4
Macedonia	6	9171	0	0	0	0	1	2
Moldova	7	2843	0	0	1	0	1	3.6
Montenegro	5	10393	4	0	0	0	0	0.6
Poland	2	18072	95	0	0	0	0	38.1
Romania	4	11917	12	0	0	0	0	21.5
Russia	11	14920	0	0	1	0	1	141.8
Serbia	4	10635	7	0	0	0	1	7.4
Slovakia	2	21244	68	0	0	0	0	5.4
Slovenia	2	27654	72	0	0	0	0	2
Ukraine	5	6339	15	0	1	0	0	46.3

* *Freedom in the World* (2010). ** IMF (2010); data for Kosovo are estimated from *World Factbook* (2009). *** La Porta, Lopez-de-

Silanes, Shleifer, and Vishny (1999). **** World Bank (2010).

Table 3. Determinants of NATO accession of European post-communist countries, OLS regressions

	Model 1			Model 2		
	Regression coefficient	Standard error	Beta (standardized regression coefficient)	Regression coefficient	Standard error	Beta (standardized regression coefficient)
GDP per capita	0.000	0.000	0.072	0.000	0.000	0.126
Freedom House Democracy Index	0.164**	0.072	0.432	0.180**	0.075	0.473
Proportion of Western Christians	0.004	0.007	0.106			
Muslim country				-0.027	0.416	-0.008
Post-Soviet country	-0.913**	0.417	-0.327	-0.896*	0.445	-0.320
Baltic State	0.052	0.432	0.013	0.128	0.415	0.032
Territorial/ethnic conflict	-0.380	0.310	-0.143	-0.372	0.321	-0.140
Constant	2.817***	0.583		2.845***	0.716	
R square	0.84			0.84		
N	25			25		

Note: The Freedom House index is reversed. *** Statistically significant at the .01 level;

** statistically significant at the .05 level; * statistically significant at the .10 level.

Table 4. Determinants of EU accession of European post-communist countries, OLS regressions

	Model 1			Model 2		
	Regression coefficient	Standard error	Beta (standardized regression coefficient)	Regression coefficient	Standard error	Beta (standardized regression coefficient)
GDP per capita	0.000**	0.000	0.317	0.000***	0.000	0.322
Freedom House Democracy Index	0.112*	0.061	0.297	0.103	0.062	0.273
Proportion of Western Christians	0.000	0.006	0.009			
Muslim country				-0.124	0.347	-0.035
Post-Soviet country	-1.146***	0.369	-0.412	-1.181***	0.379	-0.424
Baltic State	0.505	0.363	0.126	0.511	0.346	0.128
Population size	-0.001	0.004	-0.019	-0.001	0.004	-0.026
Constant	1.688***	0.475		1.547**	0.618	
R square	0.88				0.88	
N	25				25	

Note: The Freedom House index is reversed. *** Statistically significant at the .01 level;

** statistically significant at the .05 level; * statistically significant at the .10 level.

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¹² The main results remain similar when the Western historical legacy dummy variable, which includes post-communist countries that belonged to the Austro-Hungarian and German Empires, is used instead of Western Christianity or Muslim country variables.

East or West? Regional Political Divisions in Ukraine since the “Orange Revolution” and the “Euromaidan”

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Abstract

This paper analyzes changes in regional electoral behavior and attitudes towards separatism and foreign policy orientation in Ukraine after the “Orange Revolution” and the “Euromaidan,” which turned into a violent internal conflict and one of the biggest international conflicts involving Western countries and Russia. The research question is whether the regional divisions concerning domestic politics, separatism and foreign orientation have changed significantly in Ukraine since the “Orange Revolution” in 2004 and the “Euromaidan” in 2014. This paper employs comparative and statistical analyses of voting results of the 2012, 2007, 2006, and 2002 parliamentary elections, and the 2014, 2010, and 2004 presidential elections, to examine effects of historical legacies, ethnicity, language, age, and economic factors on regional support for pro-nationalist/pro-Western and pro-Russian/pro-communist political parties and presidential candidates. The study also analyses support for separatism in Crimea and Donbas after the “Orange Revolution” and the “Euromaidan.” It uses a brief survey, conducted for this study by the Kyiv International Institute of Sociology (KIIS) in April and May 2014, to examine determinants of pro-separatist attitudes. The paper also employs Razumkov Center and KIIS surveys to analyze changes in 2002-2014 in regional preferences for joining the European Union (EU), NATO, and a union with Russia. The analysis shows that Ukraine after the “Orange Revolution” remained divided along regional lines in terms of support for political parties and presidential candidates and attitudes towards joining the EU, NATO, and a Russia-led union. After the “Euromaidan,” such divisions in foreign policy orientation and, to a lesser extent, support for presidential candidates and political parties remained. A significant rise in separatist sentiments helped to fuel separatist takeovers of power in Crimea and Donbas and Russian military intervention in these regions.

Research Question

The “Euromaidan” represented crucial development not only in Ukrainian politics but also in global politics. Like the “Orange Revolution” in 2004, it involved mass protest movement against the incumbent government and a victory of pro-Western and nationalist forces which gained power. But in contrast to the “Orange Revolution,” the “Euromaidan,” which was initially primarily a peaceful movement, turned into a violent conflict which resulted in a de-facto break-up of Ukraine, the separation of Crimea with Russian military support and its subsequent annexation by Russia, and a pro-Russian separatist rebellion and subsequent Russian military intervention in Donbas. The “Euromaidan” also gave rise to a major international conflict between the Western states and Russia over Ukraine. The mass protests, known as the “Euromaidan,” were prompted by a decision by the Viktor Yanukovich government to suspend signing of the association and free trade agreement with the European Union (EU) in November 2013 and then by a violent dispersal of a sit-in on the Maidan (the Independence Square).

In contrast, the “Orange Revolution” in 2004 was sparked by an attempt to falsify presidential election in favor of Viktor Yanukovich. However, the conflict was resolved peacefully through elections. It led to a victory of Viktor Yushchenko in the repeat second round of the 2004 presidential elections. The “Orange Revolution” also involved Western governments backing of the mass protests and the Russian government support for Victor Yanukovich. The “Orange Revolution” also involved an attempt to create a separatist autonomous republic in Eastern and Southern Ukraine, but it did not lead to a break-up of Ukraine or a major international conflict.¹

The research question is whether the regional divisions in electoral behavior, support for separatism, and foreign policy orientation have changed significantly in Ukraine since the

“Orange Revolution” and the “Euromaidan.” This study examines changes in regional support for pro-nationalist/pro-Western and pro-Russian/pro-communist political parties and presidential candidates, separatism, and attitudes towards EU and NATO membership and preferred relations with Russia since the “Orange Revolution” in 2004 and the “Euromaidan” in 2014. The paper also analyses effects of regional political culture compared to other factors, such as ethnicity, language, age, and economic development levels on such support.

Previous Studies

While many previous academic studies have shown existence of strong regional political divisions in independent Ukraine, most of them focused on such divisions before the “Orange Revolution” and the “Euromaidan.” Regional variables had significant impact on support for nationalist and pro-Western parties and politicians vs. pro-Russian and pro-communist parties and politicians in parliamentary and presidential elections held since 1991. Surveys of public opinion conducted since 1991 also demonstrated regional divides between on many major domestic politics and foreign orientation issues, such as status of Russian language, Ukraine’s membership in NATO, and its relations with Russia.² However, the majority of previous studies focused on analysis of a single election or survey, and most of them did not examine changes in regional divisions, in particular, in support for political parties, presidential candidates, separatism, and attitudes towards foreign policy orientations of Ukraine.

However, in spite of such significant and persistent regional divisions, only a few scholars before the “Euromaidan” considered a territorial break-up or violent regional conflict in Ukraine as significant possibilities.³ For instance, a book-length study of regional cleavages and conflicts in Ukraine and Moldova argued that Ukraine came close to a violent break-up during

the “Orange Revolution,” and that a possibility of such a violent break-up of Ukraine similar to Moldova remained and that it dependent on political leaders in Ukraine and Russia.⁴ In contrast, two other book-length studies concluded that a potential conflict in Crimea was successfully prevented and that this autonomous region, which witnessed a strong separatist movement in the 1990s, became integrated into the Ukrainian polity. They argued that the pro-Russian secessionist movement in Crimea failed.⁵ Similar conclusions were made concerning other Southern and Eastern regions, such as Donbas.

This paper is one of the first academic studies of regionalism in Ukraine after the “Euromaidan.” The number of such studies is expected to rise significantly, because this issue became the most important issue in the Ukrainian politics and an important issue in foreign policies of the Western countries and Russia. The Western government leaders, the media, and many scholars presented the “Euromaidan” as a largely peaceful revolution, which was led by pro-Western democratic opposition to a pro-Russian government of President Yanukovych, who fled from Ukraine after a massacre of several dozens of opposition protesters by government snipers on his orders on the Maidan on February 20th, 2014.

However, the evidence indicates that the opposition, which included pro-Western, moderate nationalist and centrist parties and politicians, formed an alliance with the far right organizations and parties, such as Svoboda and the Right Sector, and overthrew the Yanukovych government with help of violence. In particular, unreported or misrepresented evidence, including videos, photos, and radio intercept of suspected shooters, and intercepted radio communications of commanders and snipers from the Security Service of Ukraine Alfa unit, indicate that certain elements of the opposition alliance including the far right, organized mass

killings of the protesters and members of special police units on the Maidan and the neighboring Instytutska Street.⁶

The Ukrainian government and the media and to a large extent their Western counterparts characterized separatism in Crimea and Donbas as having a minority support. They presented the results of referendums in these regions by separatists after they seized power there as not reflecting public preferences. The rise of separatism in both regions was attributed mostly to direct military intervention by Russia. The Ukrainian and Western governments and the media presented the separatist rebellion in Donbas as started and led from its beginning in Spring of 2014 by armed Russian military units and Russian military intelligence agents, who lacked popular backing. In contrast, the Russian government and media presented separatism in all Eastern and Southern Ukraine as having widespread popular support. Russian President Putin called this part of Ukraine Novorossiia (New Russia), a name of a historical region when it belonged to the Russian Empire.

However, the analysis shows that much of the evidence that the separatist conflict in Donbas resulted from a direct Russian military intervention was misrepresented or fabricated. For example, this concerns Ukrainian and Western governments' claims that Russian military and intelligence units or "green men" were leading the separatist fight in Donbas since it started in spring 2014. Conversely, the Russian government initially denied its direct military intervention in Crimea in March 2014, in spite of evidence that Russian military units without insignia ("green men") were operating along with paramilitary units of separatists in Crimea beyond the Russian naval base in Sevastopol and that they were seizing Ukrainian military units and government headquarters. Evidence indicates that the Russian government initially supported separatists in Donbas by allowing volunteers and weapons to cross the border from

Russia, and in providing weapons, recruitment, and training to separatists. Russia also threatened to use a military force in Ukraine and it deployed large numbers of military personnel near the border with Ukraine in spring and then in summer of 2014.

Various sources indicate that a direct Russian military intervention in Donbas began in the end of August 2014. It reportedly took form of incursions by several battalion-size units in support of a counterattack by separatist forces. Possibilities of a large-scale Russian military intervention in Donbas and neighboring regions in the East and the South of Ukraine and a war between Russia and Ukraine also remained.

The violent conflict in Donbas best fits a political science definition of a civil war. Although a significant portion of the separatist leadership and members of their armed formations were Russian nationalists, volunteers, or mercenaries from Russia, the majority of the separatist leaders and members of their armed formations were from Donbas, and, to a lesser extent, from other regions of Eastern and Southern Ukraine, including Crimea. By the time when Russian military units entered the fighting in Donbas in direct support of separatists in the end of August 2014, the battle-related casualties there reached estimated 4,000 people killed, including some 2,000 civilians, about 1,000 Ukrainian regular forces and special battalion members, and close to 1,000 members of separatist armed formations. This estimate is based on official casualty reports, which are updated and adjusted for significant undercounting of killed separatists and missing in action members of the Ukrainian forces and civilian residents.⁷ The civilian casualties include 298 passengers and crewmembers of a Malaysian Airlines plane, which was shot down in the Donetsk Region, most likely by separatists.

Both the “Euromaidan” and the “Orange Revolution” were often defined as revolutions. Such classification implied fundamental and radical changes in political institutions,

leaders, parties, and values on both national and regional levels in Ukraine, and, consequently, significant diminishing or elimination of regional divisions.⁸ Generational changes were expected to have similar impact on regional divisions, because of effect of political socialization in independent Ukraine, in contrast to socialization of older generations in the Soviet Union.⁹

Effects of the “Euromaidan” on changes in regionalism were expected to be more significant, compared to the “Orange Revolution.” In contrast to peaceful and relatively gradual and evolutionary changes after the “Orange Revolution, the Euromaidan produced more radical changes in the government, the political system, political parties, and foreign relations. The pro-Western government came to power after the “Euromaidan” as a result of a violent overthrow of the relatively pro-Russian government.

The ruling coalition after the “Euromaidan” included Svoboda, a radical nationalist party, which received several ministerial positions in the government. Svoboda was called the Social National Party until 2004 and it combined then elements of radical nationalism and Neo-Nazi ideology. Oleh Tiahnybok, its leader, was expelled from the Yushchenko’s Our Ukraine parliamentary faction for his anti-Semitic, anti-Polish, and anti-Russian speech shortly before the 2004 presidential elections. The “Euromaidan” government openly collaborated with radical nationalist and neo-Nazi parties and organizations, such as the Right Sector and the Social National Assembly. For example, special police battalions were organized on the basis of paramilitary units of these organizations. Similarly, the National Guard was organized on the basis of the Maidan Self-Defense, which had a significant involvement of the far right parties and groups.

Similarly, in contrast to a move towards a comparatively more democratic but still semi-democratic political system and relatively free and fair elections after the “Orange Revolution,”

the “Euromaidan” produced the change of the government not through democratic elections but with help of a violent overthrow of democratically elected government which was moving into a more authoritarian direction.

The political system after the “Euromaidan” shifted significantly towards a more authoritarian spectrum of still partially democratic system. For example, the leaders and many leading members of the main opposition parties, such as the Party of Regions and the Communist Party were targets of politically motivated selective prosecutions, both on founded to a various degree charges, such as corruption, but also on trumped-up charges of the mass killing of the Maidan protesters and separatism. The scale of such prosecutions far exceeded similar politically motivated selective prosecutions of the opposition leaders and activists, such as Yulia Tymoshenko, on various criminal charges during the Yanukovych government. In addition, many Party of Regions and Communist leaders and activists and their and their parties’ offices and houses were subjected to violent attacks and assaults by the far right organizations and groups, such as the Right Sector, Svoboda, its C14 neo-Nazi affiliate, and the Maidan Self-Defense. Such violence and threat of violence was also directed at many members of the parliament from these opposition parties. For the first time since *perestroika* in Soviet Ukraine in the end of 1980s, the absolute majority of parliamentary votes involved no votes cast against approved legislation. The first round of the 2014 presidential elections was the least free and fair in post-Soviet Ukraine in terms of the opposition participation. For instance, all three pro-Russian and Communist Party candidates were publicly assaulted by the far right and other Maidan activists during the election campaign, and two of them dropped from the race. All major television channels, including those controlled by formerly pro-Yanukovych oligarchs, presented pro-government positions after the “Euromaidan” and during the civil war in Donbas. Russian

Television channels were officially prohibited in Ukraine, and formerly pro-Yanukovych TV channels and pro-Russian, pro-communist or pro-separatist media were often targeted by the far right or the central authorities to force to change or stop their coverage.

The “Euromaidan” government prohibited separatist parties and organizations in Ukraine, initiated a prohibition of the Communist Party on mostly spurious separatism charges, attempted to suppress the separatist rebellion in Donbas with help of military force, the National Guard and paramilitary formations, many of which were led or involved participation of far right parties and organizations. Armed separatists were incorrectly branded as terrorists. Many separatist leaders and activists were arrested. Some 40 pro-Russian separatist protesters and employees in a trade union building were killed in a fire in Odesa in Southern Ukraine on May 2, 2014 as a result of an attack led by far right activists and protesters from the Right Sector, in particular, the Social-National Assembly, football ultras, and members of the Maidan Self-Defense with the police ordered not to intervene during this massacre.

Similarly, pro-Russian separatists seized power with help of violence or threat of violence in Crimea, and the Donetsk and Luhansk Region after the “Euromaidan.” They offered an armed resistance to the Ukrainian forces. A significant number of separatist leaders and activists were members of or associated with pro-Russian or Russian radical nationalist organizations based in Eastern and Southern Ukraine and in Russia. In separatist-held areas of Crimea and Donbas, pro-government Ukrainian parties and organizations were generally limited or prevented in ability to continue functioning; and many of their local leaders and activists were subjected to violence, threats of violence or detention. Broadcasts of most major Ukrainian television channels were stopped by separatists in Crimea and areas of Donbas that they controlled.

This study follows previous studies in defining separatism as including both an outright secession and a greater regional autonomy, which are not supported by the central government.¹⁰ In Ukraine, separatism includes not only unilateral secession but also a unilateral regional autonomy, specifically, a move from an existing unitary state towards federalism.

Previous surveys and studies showed that Western Ukrainians were significantly overrepresented in mass anti-government protests during both the “Orange Revolution” and the “Euromaidan.”¹¹ Such overrepresentation involved more widespread and more numerous protests in regions of Western Ukraine, compared to the East and the South, and to lesser extent, the Center. Western Ukrainians were also significantly overrepresented among protesters in Kyiv City, which is located in the Center of Ukraine. Conversely, residents of Eastern and Southern regions were significantly underrepresented in the pro-Maidan protests in Kyiv, and such mass protest actions against the Yanukovych government were much less numerous and less attended in these regions.

A Political Culture Theory of Ukrainian Regionalism

This study, based on the political culture theory, expects to find persistence of significant regional differences after both the “Orange Revolution” and “the Euromaidan.” Political culture refers to shared fundamental values, norms, and orientations of people. It can emerge as a result of different historical experiences and religious legacies. These values, norms, and orientations are transferred from one generation to another by means of political socialization by family, organized religion, mass media, education institutions, neighbors, and other agents of socialization.¹² Voter alignment, party systems, and conflicts in many countries reflect historical cleavages¹³.

Political values change gradually over a long period of time, in contrast to political attitudes which are much more volatile. Changes in voting behavior and attitudes over a significant period of time can indicate a trend in political values. For this reason, frequently analyzed results of a single election or a poll, for example the 2004 or 2014 presidential elections, cannot be regarded as a reliable indicator of the political culture of Ukrainians.

Political culture theories attribute regional divisions in Ukraine to different political values that are unlikely to change radically over short period of time. Distinct regional political cultures emerged as a result of different historical experiences before World War I and World War II. Seven Western Ukrainian regions experienced Polish, Czechoslovak, and Romanian rule between the World Wars. The political culture in most of these regions was also influenced by the legacy of Austro-Hungarian rule before World War I and by the Greek Catholic Church. Nationalist and pro-Western values developed in the regions of historical Western Ukraine, i.e. regions that became part of Soviet Ukraine as a result of World War II. In contrast, a pro-Russian and pro-communist political culture evolved in regions of historic Eastern Ukraine, i.e. the rest of present-day Ukraine, as a result of long periods of first Russian and then Soviet rule. However, there were also significant differences among regions of Western Ukraine, such as Galicia, Bukovyna, Transcarpathia, and Volhynia, and among regions of historic Eastern Ukraine, such as the geographic Center, the East, and the South.¹⁴

Shared regional historical experiences before World War I and World War II shaped political values and norms of Ukrainians living in the same region in similar directions. These historical periods represented crucial junctures in the evolution of distinct regional political cultures. They coincided with formation of national identities and mass education of the

population. These political values were transferred from one generation to another, including the post-Soviet generation in independent Ukraine.

The political culture theory predicted that separatist views in Crimea are unlikely to decrease radically over a relatively short-term period. Not only ethnic Russians but also ethnic Ukrainians in Crimea developed stronger pro-Russian and pro/communist political values compared to their counterparts in other regions of Ukraine, because this region belonged to Russia, including in the Soviet times, for a much longer time period than regions of not only Western Ukraine but also historically Eastern Ukraine. Crimea was transferred from Soviet Russia to Soviet Ukraine only in 1954. In contrast to Russians and Ukrainians, the Crimean Tatars developed anti-Russian and anti-Communist political values because of their distinct historical experience, which was linked to Islam and Ottoman Turkey, and their forced exile by Joseph Stalin from Crimea to Central Asia during World War II.¹⁵

Previous studies show that Crimea and Donbas were two main regions with history of significant pro-Russian separatism in independent Ukraine. Separatist attitudes in these regions rapidly grew during or in the aftermath of major political crises, which resulted in victory of pro-Western and nationalist forces, and thus were perceived as negatively affecting these regions.¹⁶ Such crises included the collapse of the Soviet Union in 1991 and the “Orange Revolution” in 2004. Since the “Euromaidan” represented another such major political crisis, separatist preferences were likely to rise in both these regions.

Other factors that are likely to affect electoral behavior, foreign policy orientation, and support for separatism include ethnicity, language, religion, age, and economic well-being. Many previous studies attributed political regionalism in Ukraine to the role of ethnic, linguistic, economic, or geographic factors. For example, geographically western regions have much higher

proportions of ethnic Ukrainians and Ukrainian speakers and much lower proportions of ethnic Russians and Russian speakers compared to the South and the East.¹⁷ Specifically, ethnic Russian form the majority of the population in Crimea and close to half of the population in the Donetsk and Luhansk Region (Donbas). Eastern regions are generally more economically developed, industrialized, and urbanized, compared to the West.¹⁸

Methodology and Data

This paper employs comparative and statistical analyses of changes in electoral support for two major broad groups of political parties and candidates, support for separatism, and attitudes towards major foreign policy issues after the “Orange Revolution” and the “Euromaidan.” It also analyses the effect of regional political culture, compared to other factors, such as ethnicity, language, economy, and religion.

This study classifies regional support for political parties and presidential candidates according to their ideological and foreign policy orientations. It groups parties or presidential candidates into two broad categories: pro-nationalist/pro-Western and pro-Russian/pro-communist. The pro-nationalist/pro-Western category includes political parties, electoral blocs, and presidential candidates who publicly espoused nationalist ideas, such as Ukrainization of all levels of government, secondary and higher education, and mass media and/or advocate pro-Western foreign policy orientation, in particular, both EU and NATO memberships. For example, in the 2014 presidential elections and the April/May KIIS survey this group included the following presidential candidates: Yulia Tymoshenko, Oleh Liashko, Anatolii Hrytsenko, Oleh Tiahnybok, and Dmytro Yarosh. Pro-nationalist/pro-Western parties included in the April/May 2014 KIIS survey were the following: Fatherland, Svoboda, and “Our Ukraine.”

The pro-Russian/pro-Communist category is comprised of parties, blocs, and presidential candidates who publicly advocated granting Russian language a status of an official language, joining the Russian-led Customs Union, and/or are regarded as successors of the Ukrainian republican branch of the Communist Party of the Soviet Union. The inclusion of pro-Russian and pro-communist parties or candidates in the single category reflects the fact that the pro-communist parties and presidential candidates tended to support official status of Russian language and pro-Russian foreign policy orientation. In the 2014 presidential elections and the April/May KIIS survey, the pro-Russian/pro-communist candidates included the following candidates: Mykhailo Dobkin, Petro Symonenko, and Oleh Tsariov. In the April/May 2014 KIIS survey, this category of parties comprised of the Party of Regions and the Communist Party.

Such classification is intended mainly to represent perceptions of the ideological and foreign policy orientations of parties and presidential candidates by voters. Many political leaders and political parties in Ukraine serve their own business interests or interests of oligarchs, and they often change their ideological positions on key issues.

This study uses regression analysis of official voting results to examine changes in regional support for pro-nationalist/pro-Western and pro-Russian/pro-communist parties in the 2012, 2007, 2006, and 2002 parliamentary elections. The multivariate regression analysis compares the role of regional variables in the vote for such candidates in the first rounds of the 2014, 2004, and 2010 presidential elections. It employs national surveys conducted by the Kyiv International Institute of Sociology in April/May 2014 and in 2007 to analyze the role of regional factors in support for pro-nationalist/pro-Western and pro-Russian/pro-communist parties and presidential candidates. This study also uses surveys conducted by the Razumkov Center and the

KIIS to examine changes in attitudes towards NATO, the European Union, and relations with Russia.

The Western regions dummy, as the omitted dummy variable in both OLS and logistic regressions, is used for the comparison of historically Western Ukraine with the Center, the South, and the East. The Western regions dummy is a proxy for distinct political culture of regions which had become a part of Soviet Ukraine as result of World War II and had much shorter histories of Russian and Soviet rule compared to other regions. Independent and socio-demographic variables include ethnicity, language, education, place of residence, the level of regional economic development and urbanization, religious confession, age, and gender.

A brief national survey conducted for the author by the KIIS in April/May 2014 provides data concerning determinants of support for separatism in Ukraine. However, this survey did not include Crimea. Razumkov Center surveys provide data concerning changes in support for separatism in Crimea and Donbas since the “Orange Revolution” and the “Euromaidan.”¹⁹

Support for Presidential Candidates

Vote for nationalist/pro-Western candidates jumped significantly in the 2014 presidential elections compared to the 2010 elections, most strongly in the Center. In contrast, the combined level of support for Viktor Yushchenko and other pro-nationalist/pro-Western candidates in the first round of the 2010 presidential elections declined significantly compared to 2004. Conversely, the vote for pro-Russian/pro-communist presidential candidates dropped across all regions, in 2014, and the vote also declined in the first round of the 2010 elections, compared to 2004. (Table 1).

[Table 1 about here]

The regression analysis shows that statistically significant regional differences in the vote for both groups of presidential candidates remained in both 2004 and 2010 elections between Western Ukraine and the Center, the South, and the East. In 2014, such differences remained only in the case of a lower vote for pro-nationalist/pro-Western presidential candidates in the South, which then did not include Crimea, and in the case of the higher vote for pro-Russian/pro-communist candidates in the East. (See Table 2).

[Table 2 about here]

These significant changes in regional popularity of nationalist/pro-Western and pro-Russian/pro-communist candidates after the “Euromaidan” reflected a number of factors. They included the violent overthrow of President Yanukovych, who was blamed for the massacre of the Maidan protesters and whose large scale corruption network was publicly exposed after he fled from Ukraine to Russia; the conflict with Russia over Crimea and Donbas; and a movement to the nationalist-pro-Western group by Yulia Tymoshenko, whose position shifted to publicly advocating not only EU but also NATO membership. Furthermore, the 2014 elections were not held in Crimea and most of the Donetsk and Luhansk Regions, which in previous presidential elections showed strongest support for pro-Russian/pro-communist candidates (Table 1). In addition, the 2014 elections were considerably less free and fair than the first rounds of the previous presidential elections.

A small minority of voters in Donbas participated in the 2014 presidential elections, where separatists seized de facto power and boycotted these elections. The April/May 2014 KIIS survey shows that the lack of central government legitimacy in Donbas was a key reason for a single digit voter turnout in the presidential elections on May 25, 2014. Some 70 percent of the

respondents in the Donetsk and Luhansk Regions said that they either would not vote or did not know which candidate to support.

Logistic regression analysis of intended voting preferences for potential presidential candidates in the 2014 and 2007 KIIS polls also shows that statistically significant regional differences remained in the case of support for pro-Russian/pro-communist candidates between Western Ukraine and both the South and the East, but the differences between the Center and the West became statistically insignificant in April/May 2014. The odds ratios of intended vote for such candidates were much higher in the East and the South compared to the West. Similarly, The odds of support for nationalist-pro-Western candidates in the East in 2014 remained much lower, compared to Western Ukraine. This was the only statistical regional difference in the 2014 KIIS survey, in contrast to statistical significance of all regional variables in the 2007 KIIS poll. (See Table 3).

It is noteworthy that the odds of intended vote for both categories of presidential candidates by ethnic Russians and Russian-speakers became statistically insignificant in 2014. In contrast, such ethnic and language-based differences were statistically significant in 2007 for voting preferences concerning both pro-Russian/pro-communist and pro-nationalist/pro-Western candidates. (See Table 3).

[Table 3 about here]

Political Party Vote

A comparison of regional vote for two major groups of political parties in the parliamentary elections held in 2012, 2007, 2006, and 2002 does not show revolutionary changes in the political orientations of Ukrainians in different regions after the “Orange Revolution.”

(Table 4). A large increase in nationalist-pro-Western vote in the Center in 2012 mostly reflected a public shift of the Fatherland Party to this political orientation after Tymoshenko was jailed on abuse of power charges following her loss to Yanukovich in the 2010 presidential elections. Fatherland fielded a joint list with Front Zmin during the 2012 parliamentary elections.

With the exception of the Center in 2012, support for pro-nationalist/pro-Western parties in Western Ukraine remained in all these elections much higher than in the geographic South and the East (Table 5). The vote for the pro-Russian/pro-communist parties was much lower in all four elections in historically Western Ukraine compared to Central, Southern, and Eastern regions. (See Table 6). The noted regional differences were statistically significant in all these cases. Standardized regression coefficients (Beta) show that the East and the South variables had much bigger effect, compared to ethnicity, Catholic religion, gross regional product per capita, and urbanization rate, on the regional vote for both pro-nationalist/pro-Western and pro-Russian/pro-communist parties in the parliamentary elections held since 2002. (Table 5 and 6). However, the snap parliamentary elections announced for October 2014 are likely to produce changes similar to the 2014 presidential elections in terms of regional differences.

[Table 4, 5, and 6 about here]

Logistic regression analysis of intended vote in the 2014 and 2007 KIIS surveys demonstrates that the odds of voting for Russian/pro-communist parties were much higher in the Center, the South, and the East compared to Western Ukraine after both the “Euromaidan” and the “Orange Revolution.” All these regional differences were statistically significant. Conversely, the odds of voting for pro-nationalist/pro-Western parties in 2014 remained much lower and statistically significant in the South and the East, compared to Western Ukraine. In

contrast, the differences in intended vote for pro-nationalist/pro-Western political parties between the Center and the West became statistically insignificant in 2014, in contrast to 2007. (Table 3).

This regression analysis shows that ethnic Russians after both the “Orange Revolution” and the “Euromaidan” had lower odds of voting for pro-nationalist/pro-Western parties and higher odds of voting for Russian/pro-communist parties. The ethnic Russian variable was statistically significant in 2014 and 2007. (See Table 3).

Support for Separatism in Crimea and Donbas

The 2001 Razumkov Center survey in Crimea showed that 50 percent of the respondents favored this region of Ukraine becoming a part of Russia, and 9 percent preferred to see their region as an independent state.²⁰ In the 2008 Razumkov Center poll taken soon after the Russian-Georgian war following an attempt by the Georgian government to seize the de-facto independent secessionist region of South Ossetia, 73 percent of the Crimeans, who made their minds on this issue, backed a secession of Crimea from Ukraine with a goal of joining Russia.²¹ However, the outright secessionist preferences in Crimea declined to 38 percent in the 2009 Razumkov Center poll and to 30 percent in the 2011 poll after the Yanukovych victory in the 2010 presidential election.²²

In the 2008 Razumkov Center Survey, 85 percent of ethnic Russians, 65 percent of ethnic Ukrainians, and 17 percent of the Crimean Tatars in Crimea wanted this region to secede from Ukraine, while 39 percent of the Crimean Tatars supported independence of Crimea.²³ The 2011 Razumkov Center Surveys showed that combined support for joining Russia and independence of Crimea decreased among ethnic Ukrainians to 25 percent from 35 percent in

2009. Attitudes of Russians demonstrated similar decline of separatist preferences to 35 percent from 43 percent. Such separatist feelings among Crimean Tatars remained the same in 2011 (28 percent), compared to 2009 (27 percent), but their support for joining Turkey increased from 4 percent in 2009 to 21 percent in 2011.²⁴

There are no directly comparable and publicly available reliable survey data in Crimea after the “Euromaidan.” The 97 percent level of support for joining Russia in a March 2014 referendum in Crimea was likely inflated to a certain extent. The referendum and the subsequent Russian annexation of this region of Ukraine were not recognized by the Ukrainian and Western governments. However, in a Pew Center survey in April 2014, 91 percent of the respondents in Crimea stated that the referendum was free and fair.²⁵ This poll result indicates that support for the separatism in Crimea increased significantly after the “Euromaidan” in 2014.

Surveys also revealed a significant rise in separatist attitudes in many Southern and Eastern regions after the “Orange Revolution.” These attitudes mostly manifested themselves in the form of support for federalism, specifically in the wake of a Party of Regions-led move to declare an autonomous republic in the South and the East during the “Orange Revolution.”²⁶ For example, in the joint KIIS and the Razumkov Center survey in May 2005, 61 percent of the respondents in the East (Donetsk, Luhansk, and Kharkiv Regions) and 42 percent in the South, compared to 31 percent in the Center and 26 percent in the West supported the federalization of Ukraine.²⁷ This data excludes undecided.

The 2013 Razumkov Center survey conducted during the “Euromaidan” in December showed significant decline in regional differences concerning support for federal Ukraine, even when disparities in regional classification with the 2005 survey are taken into account. Twenty nine percent of the respondents in the East, which was defined in this survey as including

Donetsk, Luhansk, Kharkiv, Dnipropetrovsk, and Zaporizzhia Regions, and 23 percent in the South, compared to 15 percent in both the Center and the West, favored the federalization of Ukraine.²⁸

In a separate question in the December 2013 Razumkov Center poll, 10 percent of the residents in the East and 16 percent in the South, compared to 5 percent in Western Ukraine and 2 percent in the Center, backed secession of their region from Ukraine and joining another state. Independence of their regions was supported by 5 percent of the respondents in the East, 13 percent in the South, 3 percent in the West, and 1 percent in the Center.²⁹

The KIIS survey conducted from April 29 to May 11, 2014 in all regions of Ukraine with exception of Crimea showed that the regional differences in terms of the levels and the forms of separatist preferences, including federalism, significantly increased compared to December 2013. Support for different forms of separatism, in particular federalism, dropped to zero in historic regions of Western Ukraine and to 3 percent in the Center. (See Figure 1).

However, this survey shows that the majority residents of Donbas in April/May 2014 backed different forms of separatism (54 percent overall or 61 percent excluding undecided). There were also significant but varying levels of separatist support in three Eastern regions neighboring Donbas (15 percent) and in the South (10 percent). In Donbas, 23 percent of the respondents favored autonomy as a part of federal Ukraine, compared to 8 percent supporting independence of their region and 23 percent favoring their region joining Russia. Many separatist leaders at the time of the 2014 KIIS survey called for federalism and regional autonomy in Ukraine. The Russian government also then pressed for a similar form of separatism, while the central government of Ukraine rejected federalism by associating it with separatism and persecuting separatism as a criminal offence. Conversely, preserving current status of their

regions within a unitary Ukraine but with expanded powers had a majority support in all regions except Donbas.³⁰

The 2014 KIIS survey results show that views expressed by the Russian government and media concerning widespread popular support for separatism in all Eastern and Southern Ukraine, referred by President Putin and pro-Russian separatists as Novorossia, were unfounded. Overall, ethnic Russians in Ukraine were split on the issue of separatism. Similar percentages of ethnic Russians, including people with mixed Russian and Ukrainian descent, supported preservation of the current unitary system (40 percent), mostly with expanded powers and different separatist options (44 percent), in particular, joining Russia (18 percent). In contrast, only 24 percent of Russian speakers, who include many ethnic Ukrainians, favored secession from Ukraine or regional autonomy in federal Ukraine. (Figure 1).

Multiple regression analysis shows that residents of Donbas and other Eastern regions (Kharkiv, Dnipropetrovsk, and Zaporizhzhia) expressed greater support for separatism, when other factors are held constant. Similarly, ethnic Russians, other ethnic minorities, Communist Party voters, younger people, adherents of the Ukrainian Orthodox Church (Moscow Patriarchate), and men expressed much stronger pro-separatist views. All these determinants of separatism were statistically significant. In contrast, other historical regional variables, political parties, religious confessions, the Russian language, the education level, and settlement size did not have positive and statistically significant effects on support of separatism. Age and a voting preference for Solidarnist, a party of Petro Poroshenko, who was elected as president of Ukraine in May 2014, had a negative effect on pro-separatist attitudes. (See Table 7). The separatism is measured on a scale from 1 to 3, with 1 meaning support for preservation of the respondents' region in unitary Ukraine with current or expanded powers of regions, 2 defining support for

federal Ukraine with significant regional autonomy, and 3 expressing support for secession of their region from Ukraine and joining another state or becoming independent.

[Table 7 about here]

Foreign Policy Orientations

A comparative analysis of Razumkov Center polls show that regional differences concerning the European Union membership of Ukraine increased after the “Orange Revolution.” The Razumkov Center survey taken in the end of April 2014 shows that this division also grew wider following the “Euromaidan.” The level of support for joining the EU in 2002-2014 remained relatively stable in Western Ukraine (around 80-95 percent) and the Center (around 60-80 percent). However, public backing for Ukraine joining the EU declined significantly in the East and the South since the “Orange Revolution.” While the majority of the respondents in these two regions (around 60-80 percent) backed the EU membership prior to the 2004 presidential elections, the level of support, generally, dropped below 50 percent after the “Orange Revolution.” Similarly, since the “Euromaidan,” the EU membership backing declined to 31 percent in the South, which was not included in the April 2014 Razumkov Center poll, and to 36 percent in the East from 44 percent in both these regions in the previous such poll released in 2008. (See Figure 2).

[Figures 2 and 3 about here]

Razumkov Center polls show that regional disparities concerning support for Ukraine joining NATO increased somewhat after the “Orange Revolution.” The differences between Western Ukraine and the East and the South on this issue grew further after the “Euromaidan.”

In contrast, a significant jump in public support for NATO membership of Ukraine in the Center brought this region closer to Western Ukraine on this major foreign policy issue. (See Figure 3).

KIIS polls show significant regional changes in preferred relations of Ukraine with Russia after the “Euromaidan,” in contrast to relatively modest changes after the “Orange Revolution.” In particular, support for Ukraine and Russia uniting into one state declined in all regions in the end of April 2014. However, the regional differences concerning relations with Russia remained significant in many instances. For example, 27 percent of the respondents in the East and 7 percent in the South, compared to zero percent in the West, preferred unification of Ukraine with Russia in the April 2014 KIIS poll. (Table 8).

[Table 8 about here]

The Eastern, Southern, and, to a lesser extent Central regions, also had higher levels of support for friendly but independent relations between Ukraine and Russia with open borders, without visas or customs in the 2014 KIIS poll. Conversely, a much higher proportion of the respondents in the West than in other regions continued to embrace a view that Ukraine and Russia should be like other independent countries with closed borders and with visas. (See Table 6). It is noteworthy that the Razumkov Center poll in April 2014 showed that 70 percent of the respondents in the West, 66 percent in the Center, 53 percent in the South, and 40 percent in the East believed that there was a war between Ukraine and Russia.³¹

Conclusion

This study shows that Ukraine after the “Orange Revolution” and on many issues after the “Euromaidan” remained divided along regional lines in terms of support for major political parties and presidential candidates and attitudes concerning such principal foreign policy issues

as Ukraine's membership in NATO and the European Union and relations of Ukraine with Russia. Regional divides concerning EU and NATO membership increased after the "Orange Revolution" and the "Euromaidan," while such differences significantly decreased concerning Ukraine and Russia uniting into one state.

Comparative and statistical analyses of the presidential elections results show significant decline or disappearance in certain cases, specifically in the Center, compared to Western Ukraine, of manifested regional differences in support for pro-Russian/pro-communist and nationalist/pro-Western candidates after the "Euromaidan." Similar patterns emerged concerning support for both these groups of parties in the parliamentary elections. However, there significant differences in the electoral preferences remain, primarily, involving the East and the South.

The analysis of various survey data indicates that support for separatism in Crimea and Donbas increased significantly after the "Euromaidan" that resulted in a violent overthrow of the relatively pro-Russian government. A civil war in Donbas by pro-Russian and Russian backed separatists and the Russian military interventions in Crimea and Donbas in support of separatists signified a de facto break up of Ukraine. The significant rise in separatist orientations in Crimea and Donbas after the "Euromaidan," the civil war, and the Russian direct military interventions in support of pro-Russian separatists in both regions imply that Donbas is unlikely to remain de facto in united Ukraine unless it would get a significant autonomy in a confederation-type political system, while a return of Crimea from Russia to Ukraine would be virtually impossible.

Table 1. Regional vote for presidential candidates in the first rounds of the 2014, 2010, and 2004 presidential elections, percent

Region	Pro-nationalist/ pro-Western			Pro-Russian/ pro-communist		
	2004	2010	2014	2004	2010	2014
<i>West</i>						
Chernivtsi	67	10	34	25	21	1
Ivano-Frankivsk	89	31	31	7	6	0
Lviv	87	38	26	9	6	0
Rivne	69	11	37	25	15	1
Ternopil	88	33	35	9	11	0
Transcarpathia	47	8	26	44	32	3
Volyn	77	9	40	17	12	1
<i>East</i>						
Dnipropetrovsk	19	3	24	70	46	8
Donetsk	3	1	16	93	80	11
Kharkiv	15	3	17	74	55	29
Luhansk	5	1	20	90	76	13
Zaporizhzhia	17	2	22	74	56	10
<i>South</i>						
Crimea	12	2	-	81	66	-
Kherson	32	4	25	58	48	6
Mykolaiv	18	3	20	71	57	8
Odesa	17	3	18	72	54	8
<i>Center</i>						
Cherkassy	58	8	37	36	22	1
Chernihiv	43	5	44	49	25	2
Khmelnysky	58	6	36	35	18	1
Kyiv City	62	9	25	24	19	1
Kyiv Region	60	6	30	32	18	1
Kirovohrad	39	3	35	53	32	3
Poltava	44	5	32	49	31	3
Sumy	53	7	31	39	25	4
Vinnysia	60	5	26	34	19	1
Zhytomyr	44	5	31	48	28	2

Source: Central Electoral Commission, <http://www.cvk.gov.ua>.

Table 2. Determinants of the regional vote for pro-nationalist/pro-Western and pro-Russian/pro-communist candidates in the first round of the 2004, 2010, and 2014 presidential elections, OLS regressions

	Pro-nationalist/pro-Western			Pro-Russian/pro-communist		
	2004	2010	2014	2004	2010	2014
	B	B	B	B	B	B
Ethnic Ukrainian	0.401**	0.084	0.299	-0.434**	-0.445***	-0.034
Urban	0.129	0.279**	0.104	-0.026	0.091	0.043
GDP per capita	0.000	0.000	0.000	-0.001	-0.001	0.000
Catholic	0.242**	0.338***	-0.086	-0.194*	-0.085	-0.010
Center	-18.502**	-7.086***	-2.213	17.728**	6.611	0.846
South	-39.350***	-9.717***	-10.990**	34.561***	25.194***	4.944
East	-52.407***	-14.790***	-9.990	48.558***	33.631***	11.499*
Constant	23.112	-8.557	6.058	70.342***	57.063***	3.431
R Square	0.92	0.92	0.76	0.92	0.92	0.70
N	26	26	25	26	26	25

*** Statistically significant at the .01 level, ** statistically significant at the .05 level, * statistically significant at the .1 level. South does not include Crimea in 2014.

Table 3. Determinants of vote for pro-nationalist/pro-Western and pro-Russian/pro-communist parties and presidential candidates, 2014 and 2007 KIIS surveys, logistic regressions (odds ratios)

	Pro-nationalist/pro-Western parties and blocs		Pro-Russian/pro-communist parties and blocs		Pro-nationalist/pro-Western presidential candidates		Pro-Russian/ pro-communist presidential candidates	
	2007	2014	2007	2014	2007	2014	2007	2014
Ethnic Russian	.078**	.441**	3.358***	1.489*	.222**	.655	2.115***	.990
Other ethnic minority	.258	1.720	.865	.441	.910	.811	.799	.475
Russian-speaker	.674	.993	1.257	1.095	.487*	1.192	1.669*	1.176
Male	1.046	.948	1.177	.942	1.079	1.000	1.091	.671*
Age	1.013*	1.005	1.015***	1.027***	1.003	1.013**	1.009*	.996
Education	1.041	.934	.918*	.924	.931	1.003	.879***	1.008
Settlement type	1.415	.959	.913	1.059	1.026	.982	.929	1.007
Center	.394***	.774	4.540***	9.118**	.500***	1.077	4.100***	1.846
South****	.306*	.519**	17.916***	25.165***	.223***	.788	16.123***	8.877***
East	.270***	.225***	24.807***	46.380***	.234***	.399***	18.412***	9.003***
Constant	.128***	.433*	.070***	.002***	.607	.079***	.109***	.020***
Nagelkerke R Square	.17	.10	.44	.23	.20	.04	.41	.12
N	1098	2015	1098	2015	1175	2015	1175	2015

*** Statistically significant at the .001 level, ** statistically significant at the .01 level, * statistically significant at the .05 level.

**** does not include Crimea in 2014.

Table 4. Vote for pro-nationalist/pro-Western and pro-Russian/pro-communist political parties and blocs in the 2002, 2006, 2007, and 2012 parliamentary elections, percent

Region	Pro-nationalist/pro-Western				Pro-Russian/pro-communist			
	2002	2006	2007	2012	2002	2006	2007	2012
<i>West</i>								
Chernivtsi	46	31	21	50	20	21	23	26
Ivano-Frankivsk	75	55	40	75	6	5	5	7
Lviv	64	49	39	76	9	6	6	7
Rivne	55	36	22	56	21	17	15	22
Ternopil	69	49	39	74	5	7	5	8
Transcarpathia	37	30	32	38	21	25	26	36
Volyn	58	30	21	59	17	11	12	20
<i>East</i>								
Dnipropetrovsk	6	6.5	7	24	56	58	59	55
Donetsk	3	2	2	7	76	88	89	84
Kharkiv	6	7	8	20	59	64	63	62
Luhansk	4	2	2	7	67	85	86	83
Zaporizhzhia	8	7	5	19	54	66	68	62
<i>South</i>								
Crimea	9	8	7	13	55	71	77	74
Kherson	12	11	9	27	55	54	57	53
Mykolaiv	6	7	6	22	57	64	66	60
Odesa	7	8	7	19	56	61	67	60
<i>Center</i>								
Cherkassy	27	16	16	49	42	29	25	28
Chernihiv	25	14	15	38	46	36	32	33
Khmelnysky	35	23	19	51	35	23	20	28
Kyiv City	28	20	17	49	23	22	22	20
Kyiv Region	26	16	16	48	38	23	19	27
Kirovohrad	10	11	12	39	56	37	37	40
Poltava	21	16	15	39	51	40	35	36
Sumy	19	22	21	44	56	29	25	33
Vinnysia	29	23	19	55	43	28	21	26
Zhytomyr	22	20	16	45	48	33	31	35

Source: Central Electoral Commission, <http://www.cvk.gov.ua>.

Table 5. Determinants of regional vote for pro-nationalist/pro-Western parties and blocs in the 2002, 2006, 2007, and 2012 parliamentary elections, OLS regressions

	2002 elections		2006 elections		2007 elections		2012 elections	
	B	Beta	B	Beta	B	Beta	B	Beta
Ethnic Ukrainian	.157	.123	.080	.093	.024	.038	0.358***	0.306
Urban	-.033	-.025	-.030	-.034	-.069	-.102	0.010	0.008
GDP per capita	.000	.057	.000	.045	.000	.058	0.000	0.071
Catholic	.253***	.246	.263***	.379	.238***	.458	0.276***	0.291
Center	-26.283***	-.598	-14.029***	-.475	-6.358**	-.288	-8.351	-0.207
South	-36.935***	-.624	-21.026***	-.528	-14.368***	-.483	-22.821***	-0.421
East	-40.858***	-.754	-24.827***	-.680	-16.263***	-.597	-30.655***	-0.617
Constant	35.632*		25.299**		23.499***		17.915	
R Square	.92		.93		.94		.89	
N	26		26		26		25	

*** Statistically significant at the .01 level, ** statistically significant at the .05 level, * statistically significant at the .1 level.

Table 6. Determinants of regional vote for pro-Russian/pro-communist parties and blocs in the 2002, 2006, 2007, and 2012 parliamentary elections, OLS regressions

	2002 elections		2006 elections		2007 elections		2012 elections	
	B	Beta	B	Beta	B	Beta	B	Beta
Ethnic Ukrainian	-.072	-.062	-.375***	-.263	-.438***	-.287	-0.457***	-0.349
Urban	.372	.304	.094	.063	.145	.090	0.195	0.142
GDP per capita	-.002**	-.377	-.001	-.123	-.001	-.108	0.000*	-0.235
Catholic	-.207**	-.220	-.115	-.099	-.135	-.110	-0.184**	-0.174
Center	23.103***	.578	14.068**	.286	9.322*	.178	8.224*	0.183
South****	28.705***	.533	34.646***	.523	35.152***	.497	22.774***	0.375
East	33.254***	.674	45.769***	.755	42.706***	.659	32.239***	0.580
Constant	19.028		50.087***		54.009***		62.852***	
R Square	.92		.94		.95		.95	
N	26		26		26		25	

*** Statistically significant at the .01 level, ** statistically significant at the .05 level, * statistically significant at the .1 level.

Table 7. Determinants of support for separatism in Ukraine, 2014 KIIS survey, OLS regression

	B	Beta
Ethnic Russian	.331***	.199
Other ethnic minority	.234**	.052
Russian-speaker	-.037	-.032
Male	.064**	.057
Age	-.003***	-.079
Education	-.009	-.030
Settlement type	.009	.039
Volhynia	-.052	-.020
Transcarpathia	-.035	-.010
Bukovyna	-.025	-.006
Center	.035	.029
Donbas	.711***	.452
Other East	.120*	.082
South***	.071	.039
Fatherland	-.060	-.032
Svoboda	-.033	-.011
Communist Party	.159**	.059
Party of regions	.091	.038
Solidarnist	-.129***	-.088
Our Ukraine	-.180	-.033
Other Parties	-.138*	-.046
Against All	-.030	-.016
Orthodox (Moscow Patriarchate)	.114**	.078
Orthodox Autocephalous	-.015	-.003
Orthodox (Kyiv Patriarchate)	.016	.013
Greek Catholic	.034	.015
Other Religions	-.113	-.026
No religious confession	.055	.043
Constant	1.141***	
Adjusted R Square	.373	
N	1801	

*** Statistically significant at the .001 level, ** statistically significant at the .01 level, * statistically significant at the .05 level. ***** does not include Crimea.

Table 8. Regional differences in views of preferred relations between Ukraine and Russia in Ukraine in 1996, 2008, and 2014 (KIIS Surveys), percent

	1996				2008				2014			
	West	Center	South	East	West	Center	South	East	West	Center	South*	East
Like other independent countries with closed borders, visas and customs	50	10	5	6	33	11	7	4	55	44	21	11
Independent but friendly countries with open borders (no visas and customs)	43	75	55	45	62	69	60	49	45	53	72	62
Unification into one state	6	15	40	49	5	20	33	47	0	3	7	27
Total (percent)	100	100	100	100	100	100	100	100	100	100	100	100

*Does not include Crimea

Source: Calculated from KIIS surveys, <http://kiis.com.ua>.

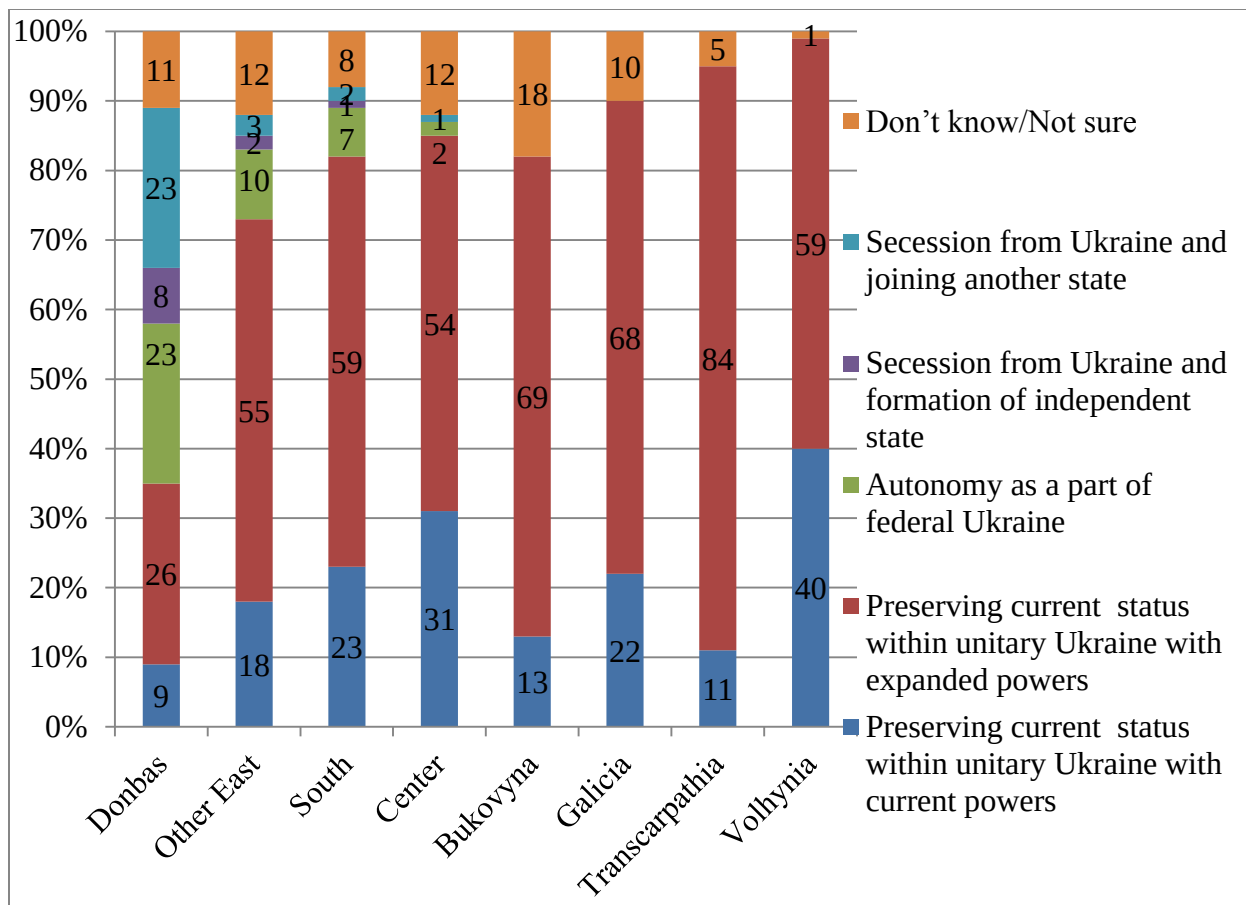


Figure 1. Support for separatism in different regions of Ukraine, the 2014 KIIS Survey, percent

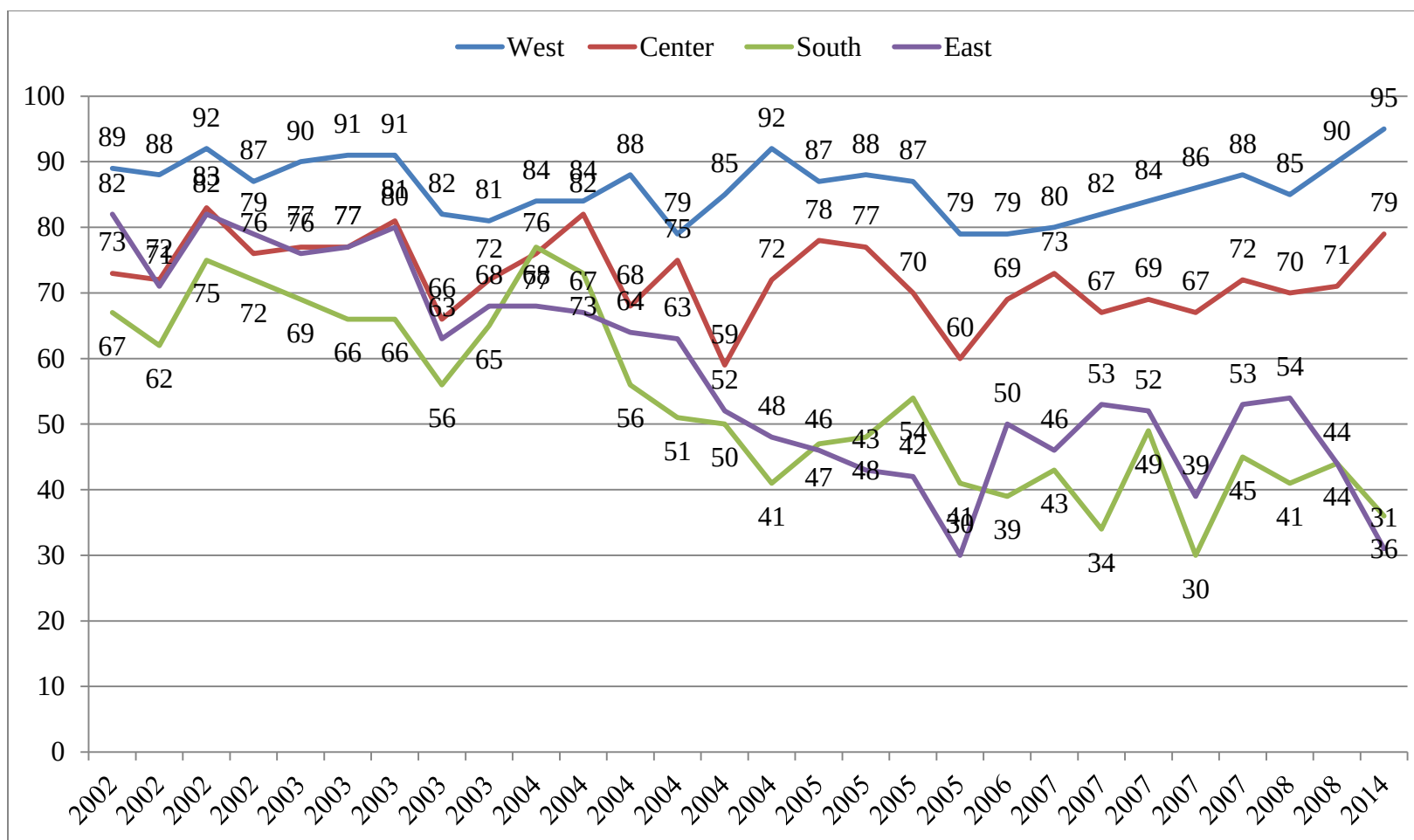


Figure 2. Regional support for Ukraine's membership in the European Union, Razumkov Center polls, percent. Note: "Don't know" and "not sure" are excluded. The April 2014 poll was not conducted in Crimea. Source: Calculated from "Spivrobitnytstvo Ukrainy z ES: Otsinky hromadian," *Natzionalna bezpeka i oborona* 6 (2008): 37-56 and Razumkov Center, <http://www.uceps.org>.

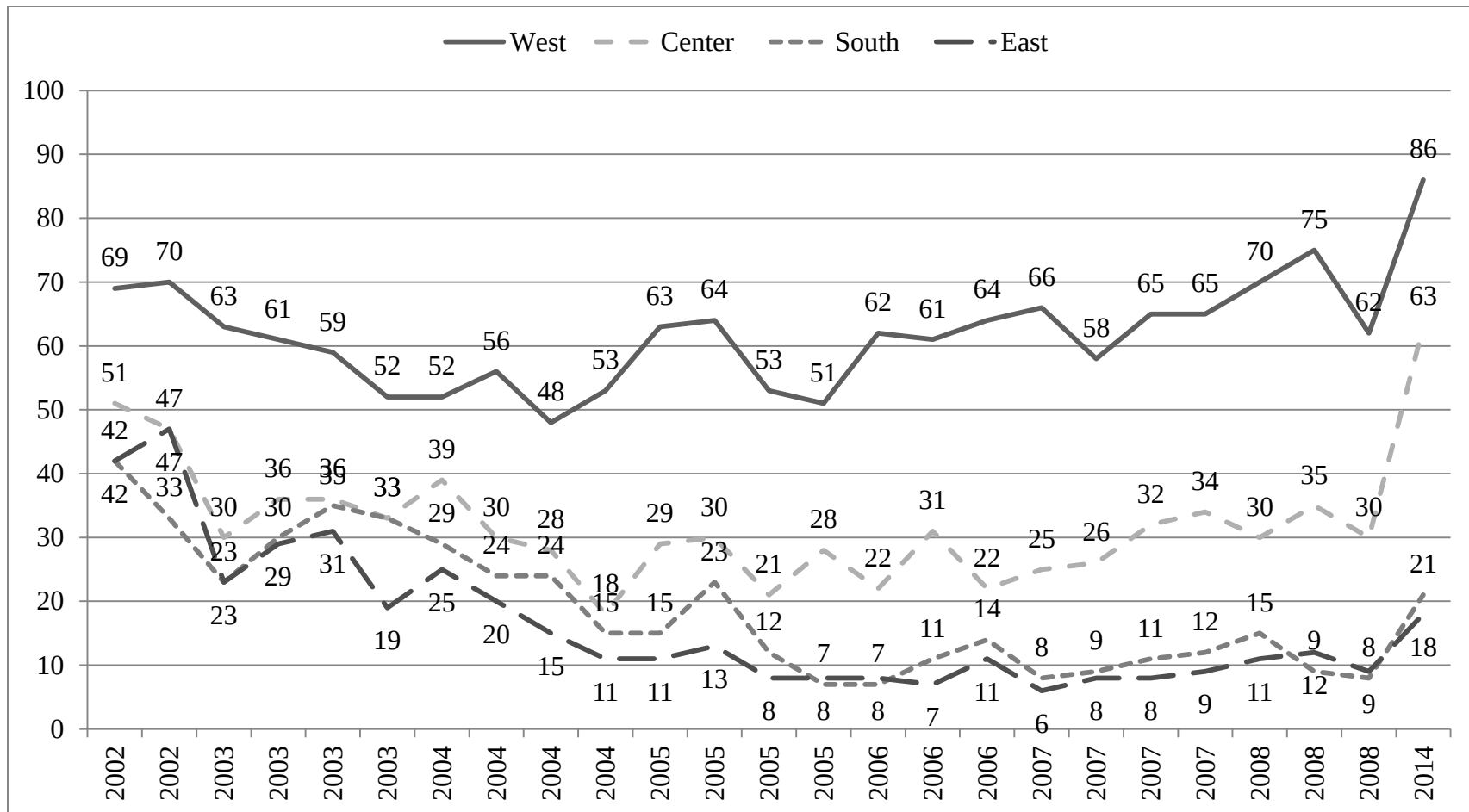


Figure 3. Regional vote for Ukraine's membership in NATO if a referendum was held at the time of the poll, Razumkov Center polls, percent. Note: "Don't know" and non-voters are excluded. The April 2014 poll was not conducted in Crimea. Source: Calculated from "Informatsiina skladova evropeiskoi ta evroatlantychnoi integratsii: hromadska dumka," *Natzionalna bezpeka i oborona* 1 (2008): 42-60; and Razumkov Center, <http://www.uceps.org>.

Notes

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³ Timothy J. Colton, “Thinking the Unthinkable: Is the Breakup of the Ukrainian State a Real Threat?” Paper presented at the Sixth Annual Danyliw Research Seminar, University of Ottawa, (October 2010); Keith A. Darden, “Conditional Property and Regional Political Cultures: Challenges for U.S. Foreign Policy in the Post-Soviet Space,” in Timothy Colton, Timothy Frye, and Robert Legvold, eds., *The Policy World Meets Academia: Designing U.S. Policy toward Russia* (Cambridge: American Academy of Arts & Sciences, 2010), 70-78; Katchanovski, *Cleft Countries*; “Political Regionalism in Orange Ukraine.”

⁴ Katchanovski, “Cleft Countries.”

⁵ Gwendolyn Sasse, *The Crimea Question: Identity, Transition, and Conflict* (Cambridge: Harvard Ukrainian Research Institute, 2007); Taras Kuzio, *Ukraine - Crimea - Russia: Triangle of Conflict* (Stuttgart: Ibidem-Verlag, 2007).

⁶ See Ivan Katchanovski, “The “Snipers’ Massacre” on the Maidan in Ukraine,” unpublished manuscript, and for instance, an unreported intercept of radio communications of Security Service of Ukraine Alfa commanders during the massacre in the morning of February 20, 2014, <https://www.youtube.com/watch?v=ziTW0PG7SBM>.

⁷ A United Nations reported, based on official body counts, that at least 2,518 people were killed in Donbas as of August 17, 2014, including at least 618 members of Ukrainian regular military, police, the National Guard, border guards, and security services forces and special police battalions, 1,602 civilians and some members of separatist formations, and 298 passengers and crew of the shot-down Malaysian Airlines plane. This official statistics, which increased to at least 2,891 people killed as of August 29, 2014, significantly underreported casualties, specifically by omitting missing members of the Ukrainian forces and civilians, many of whom were likely killed, and it did not include the absolute majority of killed members of armed separatist units. (See *Report on the Human Rights Situation in Ukraine* (Office of the United Nations High Commissioner for Human Rights, 2014, <http://www.ohchr.org/Documents/Countries/UA/UkraineReport28August2014.pdf>).

⁸ See, for example, Lyudmyla Pavlyuk, “Extreme rhetoric in the 2004 presidential campaign: Images of geopolitical and regional division,” *Canadian Slavonic Papers* 47 (2005): 293-316.

⁹ Olena Nikolayenko, “The Revolt of the Post-Soviet Generation: Youth Movements in Serbia, Georgia, and Ukraine,” *Comparative Politics* 39 (2007): 169-188.

¹⁰ See, for example, Jean-Pierre Cabestan and Aleksandar Pavković, eds. *Secessionism and Separatism in Europe and Asia: To Have a State of One's Own* (Abingdon, Routledge, 2013); Katchanovski, *Cleft Countries*.

¹¹ See for instance, Katchanovski, *Cleft Countries*; “Vid Maidanu-taboru do Maidanu-sichi: Shcho zminylosia?” KIIS (2014), <http://www.kiis.com.ua/?lang=ukr&cat=reports&id=226>; “Statystyka protestnykh dii Maidanu,” Tsentr doslidzhennia suspilstva (2014), http://www.cedos.org.ua/system/attachments/files/000/000/051/original/CSR_-_Maidan_-_9_Jul_2014.pdf?1404905306.

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¹⁵ See Fisher, Alan W., *The Crimean Tatars* (Stanford: Hoover Institution Press), 1978; and Ivan Katchanovski, “Small Nations but Great Differences: Political Orientations and Cultures of the

Crimean Tatars and the Gagauz,” *Europe-Asia Studies* 57 (2005): 877-894; Katchanovski, “Political Regionalism.”

¹⁶ Katchanovski, *Cleft Countries*, 97-100, Katchanovski, “Political Regionalism.”

¹⁷ See, for example, Dominique Arel, “Ukraine: The Temptation of the Nationalizing State,” in Vladimir Tismaneanu, ed., *Political Culture and Civil Society in Russia and the New States of Eurasia* (Armonk, M. E. Sharpe, 1995), 157-188.

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²² “Yakist zhyttia zhyteliv Krymu ta perspektyvy ii pokrashchennia v konteksti stratehii realizatsii kontseptsii ekonomichnoho ta sotsialnoho rozvytku AR Krym na 2011-2020rr,” Razumkov Center, http://www.uceps.org/upload/Prz_Krym_2011_Yakymenko.pdf, (2011): 27.

²³ Calculated from AR Krym,” 20.

²⁴ “Yakist zhyttia zhyteliv Krymu,” Razumkov Center, 27.

²⁵ Pew Research Center's Global Attitudes Project, “Ukrainians Want Unity Amid Worries about Political Leadership and Ethnic Conflict,” <http://www.pewglobal.org/2014/05/08/chapter-1-ukraine-desire-for-unity-amid-worries-about-political-leadership-ethnic-conflict>, (2014).

²⁶ Katchanovski, “Cleft Countries.”

²⁷ “Otsinka dii vlady, suspilno-politychni ta elektoralni orientatsii hromadian,” Razumkov Center, <http://www.razumkov.org.ua>, (2005).

²⁸ “Stavlennia hromadian Ukrainy do riznykh variantiiv ii terytolialnoho rozvytku,” Razumkov Center, <http://www.razumkov.org.ua>, (2014).

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³⁰ Ivan Katchanovski, “What do citizens of Ukraine actually think about secession?” *Washington Post Monkey Cage*, July 20 (2014).

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Small Nations but Great Differences: Political Orientations and Cultures of the Crimean Tatars and the Gagauz

IVAN KATCHANOVSKI

THIS ARTICLE EXAMINES THE DIFFERING POLITICAL ORIENTATIONS of the Crimean Tatars and the Gagauz, two Turkic minorities in Ukraine and Moldova. Crimean Tatars in Ukraine expressed anti-communist and anti-Russian political preferences, while Gagauz in Moldova showed strong support for pro-communist and pro-Russian parties and politicians. This study analyses the role of cultural factors in the political attitudes and behaviour of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz and uses data from surveys, elections and referendums. The analysis shows that the distinct historical experiences of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz in the Ottoman Empire, the Russian Empire, the Soviet Union and Romania led to the emergence of distinct political cultures among these ethnic groups and affected their political behaviour and attitudes in post-communist Ukraine and Moldova.

Research question

The Crimean Tatars and the Gagauz, Turkic minorities in Ukraine and Moldova, are similar in many aspects. The populations of these ethnic groups are concentrated in a small number of regions of Ukraine and Moldova. Almost all Crimean Tatars in Ukraine live in Crimea. The absolute majority of the Gagauz live in the Gagauz Yeri region in Moldova and the Odessa region in Ukraine. These ethnic groups are small minorities in Ukraine and Moldova. The Crimean Tatar population of Ukraine numbers about 250,000 or 0.5% of the total population. The 2001 census recorded that about 10% of the population in Crimea were Crimean Tatars, compared with 2% in 1989. Russians are the majority of the population (60%) in Crimea, and Ukrainians are the second largest minority in the autonomous region (24%).¹ The significant increase in the Crimean Tatar population in Crimea is a result of their return migration from Central Asian republics, where they were exiled by Stalin at the end of World War II. The Gagauz population in Moldova and Ukraine numbers more than 180,000. There are about 150,000 Gagauz in Moldova, or approximately 4% of the total population.²

The Crimean Tatars and the Gagauz live primarily in rural areas. Both Crimean Tatars and Gagauz are Turkic ethnic groups, and their languages are Turkic. Both

ethnic groups lived under the rule of the Ottoman Empire until about two centuries ago, when they came under the rule of the Russian Empire. Finally, political movements advocating national autonomy have found strong support among elites and masses of these ethnic minorities since the end of the 1980s.

Despite these similarities, Crimean Tatars and Gagauz have displayed very different political orientations since the collapse of Soviet communism. Crimean Tatars in Ukraine expressed anti-Russian and anti-communist political preferences. In contrast, Gagauz in Moldova expressed strong support for pro-communist and pro-Russian parties and politicians. These differences have persisted for almost two decades. The question is why these two Turkic ethnic groups have such different political orientations.

Most studies explain distinctive political behaviour and attitudes of ethnic minorities, including Crimean Tatars and Gagauz, by ethnic and economic differences and self-interest of politicians.³ Studies which emphasise the role of political culture in regional political divisions in the former Yugoslavia and the Soviet Union, including the Crimea region in Ukraine, often attribute ethnic cleavages to 'ancient hatred' that resulted from ancient conflicts and persisted to the present time. Nomadic ancestors of Crimean Tatars and Mongols, then referred to as Mongol-Tatars, fought and killed a large proportion of the ancestors of the modern Ukrainians and Russians in Kyiv Rus at the beginning of the last millennium. However, an 'ancient hatred' cannot explain the pro-Russian values of the Gagauz and the absence of a conflict between the Gagauz and Ukrainians. Even before the ancestors of Crimean Tatars arrived along with Mongol armies, nomadic ancestors of the Gagauz, e.g. the Pechenegs, were engaged in violent conflicts with Kyiv Rus for a long time.

This article analyses the role of cultural factors in political attitudes and behaviour of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz in post-communist Ukraine and Moldova. The study links distinct historical experiences of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz in the Ottoman Empire, the Russian Empire, the Soviet Union and Romania to the emergence of distinct political cultures among these Turkic ethnic groups, and consequently, their different political orientations in the post-communist era.

Theoretical framework

Historical experience, also referred to as historical legacy or memory, represents a major source of political culture. Political culture refers to values and norms that are shared by individuals. Almond & Verba define the political culture of a nation as 'the particular distribution of patterns of orientation toward political objects among the members of the nation'.⁴ This means that not every individual in a particular group shares the dominant culture of that group.

The concept of political culture implies that certain key values and norms persist over a long period of time, in contrast to political attitudes, which are much more volatile. While support for a particular political party or idea often significantly changes from one election or survey to another election or survey in a few years, as a result of shifts in political attitudes that are caused by such factors as economic situation and charismatic appeal of political leaders, political culture refers to fundamental political orientation that changes much more slowly. For example, significant popular support for the New

Deal policies and parties and a sharp rise in the union membership rate in the United States in the 1930s and the 1940s reflected changes in attitudes caused by the Great Depression and World War II. Because fundamental political values of Americans remained individualist and laissez-faire, however, support for the New Deal policies and parties and the union membership rate in the US dropped soon after the economic situation improved and World War II ended.⁵

Therefore, it is important to analyse election results, surveys and other data concerning political orientation over a significant period of time to separate political culture patterns from temporary changes in political attitudes. Thick description, e.g. historical and ethnographical studies, is a traditional way to research culture.⁶ Historical studies provide data on the formation and evolution of political cultures. However, historians tend to focus on a single country or region and avoid theoretical generalisations. This is the case with most of the historical studies of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz.

Shared historical experiences bring the values and norms of individuals close to one another, while different histories have the opposite effect. Socialisation in family, school, church, a circle of friends and other social institutions serves as a mechanism that transmits these values and norms from one generation to the next. As a result, different historical legacies shape the political culture of ethnic, linguistic, regional and racial groups.⁷

For example, differing historical legacies have affected the institutional performance of Italian regional governments.⁸ Similarly, differences in colonial institutions in North America and Latin America resulted in significant divergences in the development of these societies in post-colonial times. The legacy of British rule in the United States and Canada was more favourable for the emergence and evolution of a decentralised government than the legacy of Spanish and Portuguese rule in Latin America.⁹ In post-communist countries of the former Soviet Union and Eastern Europe, a divergence in growth, economic liberalisation and corruption is linked to different historical experiences of their populations in the Russian Empire, the Ottoman Empire, the Austro-Hungarian Monarchy and the German Empire.¹⁰ However, most of these studies do not provide detailed analyses of mechanisms that helped to transfer such historical experiences to modern times.

In historical perspective, political culture can be viewed as analogous to a geological structure, which includes layers or deposits accumulated over a long time.¹¹ Critical junctures in history, such as the unification or break-up of a country and defeat or victory in war, provide a major impetus for the formation of political culture. Using an analogy proposed by Max Weber, the critical juncture represents a point in the evolution of political culture where a dice becomes 'loaded'. In the course of the subsequent historical development the loaded dice directs the evolution of culture in a particular direction.¹² This implies that not all historical legacies are equally important. A period when political culture starts to form and massive political upheavals, e.g. protracted and repeated wars, mass expulsions etc., affect the majority of the population, is more crucial in the evolution of political culture than other historical periods and events.

Religious legacies also influence the evolution of culture. Modern civilisations and regional conflicts are often associated with religions, e.g. Western Christianity,

Orthodox Christianity, Islam, Buddhism and Confucianism. This theory of political culture regards conflicts in the former Yugoslavia, the former Soviet Union and many developing countries as the clash of civilisations.¹³

Because religious identities can be culturally transmitted even to the illiterate population, they often precede the formation of national identities.¹⁴ When the majority of the population was illiterate, their religious, local and status-based identities were dominant. Different experiences of religious groups had a major effect in formation of their political values. Such historical differences were transmitted from one generation to another by means of socialisation in families, schools and religious communities. Therefore, historical religious differences continue to affect political orientation in modern times, even though a large proportion of the population is no longer deeply religious.

This study argues that historical experiences transmitted from one generation to another through socialisation in family, community, education system and media played the crucial role in the emergence and evolution of distinct political cultures among Crimean Tatars and Gagauz. Institutions of Islam and slavery in the Ottoman Empire and the experience of Crimean Tatars during their exile in the Soviet Union at the end of World War II were crucial factors in the formation of anti-Russian and anti-communist political values among Crimean Tatars. In contrast, discrimination and persecution of Gagauz because of their adherence to Orthodox Christianity in the Ottoman Empire, their mass migration to the Bessarabia region in the Russian Empire, as well as historical experiences in Romania and the Soviet Union, fostered a pro-Russian and pro-communist orientation among this Turkic people.

Data and methodology

This study uses survey data and results of elections and referendums, and it compares political behaviour and attitudes of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz in Ukraine and Moldova. Surveys that are employed include the following: the 1990 Academy of Sciences of Moldova survey, the 1995 World Values Survey in Moldova, the 1998 Laitin/Hough survey in Moldova, the 1996 USIA/SOCIS-Gallup survey in Crimea, the 2001 Ukrainian Centre for Economic and Political Studies survey in Crimea and a 1995 survey of the Gagauz in the Odessa region of Ukraine. The article also examines data from Soviet, national and regional elections and referendums held in Crimea and the Gagauz region since 1990.

The study uses a comparative analysis of the historical experiences of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz that were shaped by different political and religious institutions and policies in the Ottoman Empire, the Russian Empire, the Soviet Union and Romania. The article also outlines a general mechanism of intergenerational transmission of historical experiences of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz. In contrast to Crimean Tatars, research on Gagauz history is very limited—in the West, Moldova, Ukraine, Russia and other countries. For example, there are no English-language books on Gagauz politics and history, while English-language books on Crimean Tatars number in dozens.¹⁵ Even the basic facts about the Gagauz are not always known. For instance, one study identifies the Gagauz in Moldova as a Muslim minority.¹⁶ Another study attributes the presence of the Gagauz in Moldova to

Ottoman rule in this region, while, in fact, almost the entire Gagauz population migrated from Bulgarian and Romanian parts of the Ottoman Empire to the Bessarabian region of the Russian Empire because of their persecution as Orthodox Christians.¹⁷

Support for political parties and political leaders

Crimean Tatars established and overwhelmingly supported their own ethnically based political organisations in elections in the Crimean autonomous region. For example, the Medzhlis won all 14 of the seats reserved for the Tatars in the 1994 election to the Crimean parliament. A 2001 poll, conducted by the Ukrainian Centre for Economic and Political Studies in Crimea, showed that 11% of the respondents supported the Medzhlis. Since the percentage of Crimean Tatars in the population of Crimea is of similar magnitude, this poll result indicates that the absolute majority of Crimean Tatars supported the Medzhlis. The Medzhlis and other Crimean Tatar organisations consistently opposed Russian separatism in Crimea.

The Medzhlis and pro-Ukrainian parties and politicians, whose main base of popular support was in Western Ukraine, often supported each other in order to counter the pro-Russian movement in Crimea. Mustafa Dzhemilev, the chairman of the Medzhlis, was elected to the Ukrainian parliament on the Rukh list in the 1998 election.¹⁸ Such cooperation allowed Rukh, the nationalist Ukrainian movement, to gain about 7% of the votes in Crimea and rank third among political parties in the region. Crimean Tatar voters gave Rukh about two-thirds of their votes in the region. Similarly, in the 2002 parliamentary election, the Nasha Ukraina bloc won 10% of the votes in Crimea with support from Crimean Tatars.

Similarly, the Medzhlis and other major organisations of Crimean Tatars backed Viktor Yushchenko, the leader of Nasha Ukraina, in all rounds of the 2004 presidential election in Ukraine.¹⁹ The Crimean Tatars contributed a significant proportion of the 14% of the votes Yushchenko received in the repeat second round of the presidential election in Crimea. In contrast, Viktor Yanukovych, the pro-Russian presidential candidate, obtained 83% of the votes in Crimea.²⁰

However, this cooperation between the Medzhlis and nationalist/pro-Ukrainian organisations was a marriage of convenience that resulted from mutual anti-communist and anti-Russian orientation. Some Crimean Tatar organisations, which were much less influential than the Medzhlis, advocated separation from Ukraine. For example, the Union of Crimean Turks (Azat Kyyrim) declared establishment of an independent state of Crimean Tatars its main goal. In 1999 the Crimean Tatar National Movement initiated collection of signatures calling for an international tribunal to investigate genocide and ethnocide against Crimean Tatars. The statement named Ukraine as the main defendant because it controlled the territory belonging to the Crimean Tatar people.²¹

Support for pro-Russian and pro-communist political leaders and organisations, which advocated the separation of Crimea from Ukraine, was low among Crimean Tatars. This political orientation differentiated Crimean Tatars not only from the majority of ethnic Russians but also from a significant proportion of ethnic Ukrainians, who supported pro-Russian and pro-communist parties and politicians

in Crimea. For example, the Russia bloc received 67% of the votes in the 1994 parliamentary election. This organisation favoured two possible options for Crimea: creation of an independent Crimean Republic, or the region's reunification with Russia. The Crimean Tatar Medzhlis opposed pro-Russian candidates and supported a pro-Ukrainian candidate during the 1994 presidential election in Crimea. Yuri Meshkov, the candidate of the Russia bloc, won in the second round with 73% of the votes.²² After the disintegration of the Russia bloc in the mid-1990s the Communist Party of Crimea, affiliated with the Communist Party of Ukraine, became the leading political force in the region. The Communist parties received more than one-third of the votes in the 1998 parliamentary election in the Crimean Republic and in the national elections in Ukraine in 1998 and 2002.

In contrast to Crimean Tatars, the Gagauz expressed strong support for pro-communist and pro-Russian parties and politicians. Gheorghe Tabunshchik, the former First Secretary of the Moldovan Communist Party in the Gagauz region, was elected governor of the Gagauz autonomous region in 1995. In October 2002 he ran as a Moldovan Communist Party candidate and won the governor election in Gagauz Yeri for a second time. Tabunshchik received 51% of the vote in the second round of the election in the autonomous region.

A 1990 poll showed that support for a pro-Soviet/anti-independence movement in Moldova and a Gagauz separatist movement was strongest in the Gagauz region (24% and 25% respectively). Support for the Popular Front, a nationalist Moldovan movement, was much weaker in the Gagauz region (21%) than in other parts of the historical Bessarabian region of Moldova with the notable exception of Bendery (Tighina), a city that would become part of the Transdnistrian Republic (19%). The Popular Front was supported by 42% of the respondents in Chisinau and 32% of the respondents in other districts of Bessarabian Moldova.²³

According to the 1995 World Values Survey in Moldova, 15% of respondents in the Gagauz region expressed the desire to vote for Communists. Support for various nationalist/pro-Moldova parties was lowest in the Gagauz region (0%), compared with 29% in the capital and 34% in the rest of Moldova. The absolute majority of the respondents in the region (85%) favoured centrist parties. However, the apparent support for the centrist Moldovan parties did not manifest itself during the elections held the same year. For example, the Agrarian Democratic Party, which was supported by 55% of the respondents in the region in the 1995 World Values Survey, received 12% of the votes in the 1995 Gagauz regional assembly election.²⁴

In the 1995 parliamentary election the Communist Party of Moldova received 14%, while Vatan, a Gagauz party headed by Stefan Topal, received 15% of the votes in the region. The Gagauz People's Party, which opposed Gagauz secessionism, won only 4% of the votes. The Agrarian Democratic Party, which received 47% of the votes in the 1995 local elections in Moldova, obtained just 12% of the vote in the Gagauz region. Non-party candidates received more than half of the votes (55%).²⁵

Three-quarters (74%) of the voters in the Gagauz autonomous region voted for the Party of Moldovan Communists along with two smaller pro-communist parties in the 1998 parliamentary election. These parties gathered only 31% of the votes in other regions of Moldova, excluding Transdnistria. A similar pattern was repeated in the 1999 local elections when 53% of the voters in the Gagauz region supported the

Communist parties, compared with 33% received by the Communist parties in the rest of Moldova, excluding Transdnistria. Similarly, in the 2001 parliamentary election the Party of Moldovan Communists won 81% of the vote in Gagauz Yeri compared with 49% in the rest of Bessarabia.²⁶

The results of the parliamentary election in Moldova in March 2005 provided fresh evidence of the pro-Russian and pro-communist political values of the Gagauz. The Patria-Rodina bloc received the majority of the votes in the Gagauz autonomous region (51%), while it scored only 5% of the national vote in Moldova. The Socialist Party and a splinter Party of Socialists established this electoral bloc. These parties, which were once allied with the Party of Moldovan Communists, offered a pro-Russian electoral programme that included Moldova's integration in the Common Economic Space and a union of ex-Soviet republics led by Russia and support of a Russian plan for resolution of the Transdnistrian conflict. The Ravnopravie movement, which also favoured a union with Russia, received the support of more than 5% of the Gagauz voters compared with less than 3% in Moldova overall.²⁷

In spite of the administrative resources used by the ruling Party of Moldovan Communists, support for this party in Gagauzia in the 2005 parliamentary election dropped by more than half compared with the 2001 parliamentary election. Vladimir Voronin, the leader of this party and president of Moldova, did not accept the Russian plan for Transdnistria and changed his orientation from the Commonwealth of Independent States towards European integration in order to stay in power. The Party of Moldovan Communists received 31% of the votes in Gagauzia compared with about half of the votes in the rest of Moldova, excluding the Transdnistrian Republic.²⁸

Like the previous elections, the 2005 parliamentary election showed a low level of support for Moldovan nationalist and pro-Romanian parties in Gagauz Yeri. Only about 1% of voters in this autonomous region backed the People's Christian Democratic Party, the main nationalist party, which received about 10% of the national vote in Moldova, excluding the Transdnistrian Republic.²⁹

Attitudes towards Russia, the Soviet Union and independence

Various surveys conducted since 1990 demonstrated that Crimean Tatars had negative attitudes towards Russia and the Soviet Union, and demonstrated significant support for Crimean Tatar independence. Analysis of a 1996 survey commissioned by the USIA and conducted by SOCIS-Gallup showed that Crimean Tatars were much less pro-Russian than Russians and Ukrainians in Crimea. Much lower proportions of Crimean Tatars (8%) than Russians (59%) and Ukrainians (41%) favoured Crimea becoming a part of Russia. Crimean independence received stronger backing among Crimean Tatars (27%) than among Russians and Ukrainians in the region (15% and 17% respectively). This indicated a considerable level of support for Crimean Tatar independence. Regarding the status of Crimea, more than half of Crimean Tatars (54%), compared with 29% of Ukrainians and 13% of Russians, said that the region should be a part of Ukraine (Table 1). A quarter (26%) of Crimean Tatars, compared with 13% of Ukrainians and 4% of Russians in the region, supported the independence of Ukraine. Some 62% of Crimean Tatars, 80% of Ukrainians and

TABLE 1
PREFERENCES CONCERNING FUTURE OF CRIMEA (%)

	<i>Crimean Tatars</i>	<i>Russians</i>	<i>Ukrainians</i>
Part of Russia	8	59	41
Independent Crimea	27	15	17
Part of Ukraine	54	13	29
Other	11	13	13

Source: 1996 USIA/SOCIS-Gallup Poll.

91% of Russians in Crimea favoured a confederation of Ukraine with Russia and other former Soviet Republics.³⁰ It is noteworthy that not only ethnic Russians but also ethnic Ukrainians in Crimea were much more supportive of the confederation option and less supportive of the independence of Ukraine than the respondents in Ukraine as a whole. The Ukrainian national identity was historically least developed in Crimea, which before its transfer to Soviet Ukraine in 1954 was a part of the Russian Federation in the Soviet Union.

A survey conducted in Crimea revealed significant political cleavages between Crimean Tatars and Slavs, i.e. Russians and Ukrainians, on foreign policy issues. Crimean Tatars favoured establishment of a Crimean Tatar Autonomous Republic and opposed any reunification of Crimea with Russia, while Russians and Ukrainians opposed the idea of a Crimean Tatar autonomous region in Crimea. The Crimean Tatar respondents supported the NATO intervention in Serbia on behalf of Kosovo Albanians. In contrast, Russians and Ukrainians in Crimea had very negative attitudes toward the NATO intervention.³¹

Surveys and referendums revealed that the Gagauz, in contrast to Crimean Tatars, had positive attitudes towards the Soviet Union and Russia. The 1990 survey conducted by the Department of Sociology of the Academy of Sciences of Moldova and the Institute of Social and Political Studies showed that 75% of respondents in the Gagauz region supported the preservation of Moldova's membership of the Soviet Union. Only the Transdnistria region had a comparable level of pro-Soviet orientation (82%). Support for the independence of Moldova showed a reverse pattern. It was lowest in Transdnistria (13%) and Gagauz Yeri (19%) and highest in cities and districts in Bessarabian Moldova (37–41%). The issue of Moldova's unification with Romania received low support (2–6%) in all regions of Moldova.³²

In the March 1991 all-Union referendum on the future of the Soviet Union the overwhelming majority (about 82%) of those who took part in the Gagauz region referendum voted for the preservation of the Soviet Union. The level of support for the preservation of the Soviet Union among the Gagauz was comparable to that among residents of Transdnistria (about 93%).³³

The 1998 Laitin/Hough survey revealed that the Gagauz were more pro-Russian in their orientation than ethnic Russians in Moldova.³⁴ Some 58% of the Gagauz respondents favoured confederative/united government with Russia, and 9% favoured independent government. No Gagauz respondents supported confederation or a union with Romania. In comparison, 43% of Russians and 21% of Moldovans supported a

TABLE 2
PREFERENCES CONCERNING FUTURE OF MOLDOVA (%)

	<i>Gagauz</i>	<i>Russians</i>	<i>Moldovans</i>	<i>Other</i>
Confederation/union with Russia	58	43	21	36
Independent	9	7	31	12
Confederation/union with Romania	0	1	4	7
Other	33	49	44	45
<i>N</i>	126	362	627	422

Source: 1998 Laitin/Hough survey.

confederative or united government with Russia. Some 7% of Russians and 31% of Moldovans supported independence, while 1% and 4% respectively favoured a confederation or a union with Romania (Table 2).

In contrast to Crimean Tatars, who supported the independence of Ukraine from the Soviet Union, Gagauz opposed the independence of Moldova and backed a significant degree of autonomy or outright independence of their region, in part to preserve their ties to Russia. Several districts in the south of Moldova, which were populated by Gagauz, declared the creation of a Gagauz Soviet Socialist Republic in August 1990. In the December 1991 referendum in the Gagauz region about 95% of the voters voted in favour of the independence of Gagauzia. The participation rate was 85%.³⁵ The region boycotted the 1991 presidential election in Moldova. In an election separately held in the Gagauz region, Stefan Topal, leader of a Gagauz secessionist movement, won over 90% of the vote and became president of the unrecognised Gagauz Republic in 1991. The central government of Moldova initially opposed the creation of the Gagauz Republic and declared martial law in the region.

It is noteworthy that the Gagauz separatists received support in their conflict with the Moldovan nationalists and central government of Moldova from the authorities of the unrecognised Transdnistrian Republic, Moldova's secessionist region which strongly favoured a pro-Russian orientation. The Gagauz authorities maintained links with the Transdnistrian government in spite of its conflict with Chisinau. Gagauz and Transdnistrian separatist leaders, including Stefan Topal and Igor Smirnov, were arrested by the central authorities in Moldova for expressing support of the coup attempt organised by hard-line Soviet leaders in the Soviet Union in August 1991.³⁶

An agreement on autonomy of the Gagauz region was approved by the Moldovan parliament in 1994. The Gagauz autonomous region, also called Gagauz Yeri or Gagauzia, consists of the districts and villages which voted for inclusion in the region in referendums.³⁷ Ethnic Gagauz account for 79% of the population of the autonomous region, while ethnic Moldovans constitute about 4% and ethnic Russians about 5% of the population.³⁸ The Gagauz autonomous region negotiated for the right to decide its own status in the event that Moldova reunited with Romania.³⁹ Even after they received considerable autonomy in Moldova, Gagauz leaders wanted to elevate the region's constitutional status.

Surveys indicate that Soviet identity was weaker among Crimean Tatars than among Gagauz. For example, a survey conducted in Crimea in 2000 found that Soviet identity was important to only 4% of Crimean Tatars, compared with 18% of

Russians. Soviet identity was completely absent among 60% of Crimean Tatars, compared with 30% of Russians. Conversely, ethnic identity was important to 80% of Crimean Tatars and 26% of Russians in Crimea.⁴⁰

A survey conducted in the Odessa region in 1995 found that 35% of Gagauz considered themselves citizens of the Soviet Union, while 22% considered themselves representatives of the Gagauz people, and only 12% considered themselves citizens of independent Ukraine. Some 17% of Gagauz replied that it did not matter for them, and 14% were not sure.⁴¹

Similarly, Gagauz and Crimean Tatars differed in their attitudes towards Soviet history. The 1995 World Values Survey showed that Gagauz were much more favourable in their evaluation of the Soviet system than respondents from other regions of Moldova, excluding Transdnistria, which was not covered by the survey. As many as 80% of the respondents from Gagauz Yeri gave communist political systems a positive rating, compared with 41% in other Bessarabian regions of Moldova. A negative rating of the Soviet system was given by 18% of the respondents in the Gagauz region, 21% in Chisinau city and 30% in the rest of the Bessarabian part of Moldova.⁴² The 1998 Laitin/Hough survey showed that 72% of ethnic Gagauz expressed regret about the break-up of the Soviet Union, while only 19% viewed the collapse of the USSR in a positive light. In comparison, 74% of the respondents in the unrecognised pro-Russian Transdnistrian Republic considered the fall of the Soviet Union harmful; 15% of Transdnistrians regarded the collapse of the Soviet Union as good.

The 1995 World Values Survey showed that the dislike of Stalinists in Bessarabian Moldova was lowest among respondents from the Gagauz region; 0% of Gagauz and 12% of Moldovans expressed dislike of Stalinists. In contrast, 44% of Gagauz and 9% of Moldovans from the Bessarabian region of the country selected Neo-Nazis as the least liked group.

Crimean Tatars expressed a negative attitude towards Stalin and his supporters. This attitude was demonstrated in their mass rallies marking anniversaries of Stalin's deportation of Crimean Tatars and in their opposition to a monument to Stalin in Crimea. For example, tens of thousands, or about 10–15% of the whole adult population of Crimean Tatars in Ukraine, participated in a rally in 2004 commemorating the 60th anniversary of the deportation.⁴³ Leaders of the Medzhlis opposed plans, which were supported by Crimean communists, to erect a monument to Stalin, Roosevelt and Churchill in commemoration of the 60th anniversary of the Yalta conference in Crimea during World War II.⁴⁴

Attitudes towards other ethnic groups

Survey data show that Crimean Tatars have overwhelmingly a negative perception of Russians and Ukrainians. The Tatar respondents regard themselves and Slavs as completely different groups that have a limited degree of interaction. One-third of Russians and Ukrainians also viewed Crimean Tatars negatively. In 30% of cases Russians and Ukrainians expressed positive perceptions of Crimean Tatars.⁴⁵

Respondents to the 2001 nationwide survey conducted in Ukraine by the Kyiv International Institute of Sociology regarded Crimean Tatars as the second most

distant group in Ukraine after Gypsies. Crimean Tatars had a score of 5.11 on the Bogardus index of social distance, compared with 2.43 for Russians, 3.30 for Belorussians, 4.45 for Poles, 4.54 for Jews, 4.62 for Moldovans and 5.75 for Gypsies. This index ranges from 1, when all respondents agree to have representatives of a given group as their family members, to 7, when all respondents would not permit group members to enter the country. The score of 2 means that members of a group are accepted as close friends; 3 means they are accepted as neighbours; 4 means they are accepted as co-workers; 5 means they are accepted as residents of Ukraine and 6 means they are accepted as visitors to Ukraine.⁴⁶

In contrast, Gagauz have a positive attitude towards Russians and Ukrainians. The 1995 survey of Gagauz living in the Odessa region of Ukraine revealed that they were much more likely to approve of inter-marriage with Slavs than with members of Turkic ethnic groups. Some 67% were willing to accept marriage of their close relatives to Russians, 61% to Bulgarians and 60% to Ukrainians, compared with 43% to Turks and 28% to Azeris.⁴⁷

Gagauz in Moldova expressed extremely favourable attitudes towards the Russian language even though their own language has much more in common with other Turkic languages, such as Turkish, Azeri and Turkmen, than with Russian. The 1998 Laitin/Hough survey showed that 97% of Gagauz favoured Russian as a mandatory subject, while a mere 3% were against such a measure. The Gagauz preference for the Russian language was comparable to support expressed by other ethnic minorities, i.e. mostly Russians and Ukrainians, in Moldova (91% in favour and 6% against). In comparison, 69% of ethnic Moldovans in Bessarabia and 98% in Transdnistria supported the Russian language being a required subject in all schools, while 26% and 1% respectively opposed this idea.

Historical experience and evolution of the political cultures of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz

Differences in historical experience between Crimean Tatars and Gagauz were linked to religion. In medieval times Crimean Tatars adopted Islam, while Gagauz became Orthodox Christians. The adoption of these religions was a critical juncture in the emergence of the political culture of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz. Since the Middle Ages, Muslim and Orthodox religions deeply influenced the values of the absolute majority of the population, especially in the Ottoman Empire, and the religious identity of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz was more developed than their national and class identities.

The main line of division in the Ottoman Empire, including the Crimean khanate, which became a vassal state of the Ottoman Empire at the end of the fifteenth century, ran between Muslims and Christians. Muslims were the most privileged group in the Ottoman Empire. The government treated non-Muslims as members of lower social groups. Thus Christians, compared with Muslims, had to pay higher taxes, wear different clothing and face religious and legal discrimination; they could not carry arms and a significant number of them were made slaves or massacred during wars and uprisings. While the religious law of Islam recognised Orthodox Christians as 'People of the Book' and granted them a protected but second-class status, informal

institutions and practices in the Ottoman Empire did not always follow this formal interpretation of the law, as evidenced by the enslaving of Orthodox Christian children in the Balkans for military and government service, the genocide of Christian Armenians during World War I and the persecution of the Orthodox Gagauz and Bulgarians.⁴⁸

According to available estimates, the scale of Ottoman slavery was comparable to that on the other side of the Atlantic.⁴⁹ Ukraine, Southern Russia and the Caucasus were the major sources of slaves. It is estimated that in Ukraine alone about 2–2.5 million people were forced into slavery or killed during frequent raids carried out by Crimean Tatars over several centuries.⁵⁰ Agricultural slavery in the Ottoman Empire was not as widespread as in the US, but it existed along with military, household and maritime forms of slavery. While Ottoman slavery differed in its forms from American slavery, the experience of the small minority of slaves who, like a Ukrainian wife of Sultan Suleiman the Magnificent, rose to the top of the Ottoman ranks was not representative of the experience of most slaves from Russia and Ukraine.

Slavery and slave trading were important institutions in the Crimean khanate.⁵¹ Because Islam prohibited the enslavement of fellow Muslims, Orthodox Ukrainians and Russians were targets of frequent raids by Crimean Tatars. A significant number of them, estimated at tens of thousands each year, were captured and sold as slaves in Crimea. This practice lasted several centuries.⁵²

This historical experience played a major role in the formation and cultural transmission among Ukrainians and Russians of a popular image that associated Crimean Tatars with slavery. The role of Ukrainian and Russian Cossacks as defenders against slave and military raids conducted by Crimean Tatars became entrenched and mythologised in popular memory, even though the Crimean khans and Ukrainian Cossack leaders were allies in a number of battles. The very name Ukraine took hold during this period. It meant 'the borderland' or 'on the edge'. The Polish Kingdom, which controlled large parts of Ukraine, and the Russian Empire tried to use Ukrainian peasants, many of whom settled in areas close to the Ottoman Empire to escape from serfdom, as guards against incursions by the Crimean Tatars. It is noteworthy that these frontier warriors became known as Cossacks, a term derived from a Turkic word for 'adventurer' or 'free man'.⁵³

The Russian conquest of Crimea at the end of the eighteenth century brought a major change in the historical experience of Crimean Tatars; they became subject to discrimination as Muslims and potential allies of the Ottoman Empire in its frequent wars with the Russian Empire. As a result, a large proportion of the Crimean Tatar population migrated to the Ottoman Empire.⁵⁴

The historical experience of Gagauz in the Ottoman Empire and the Russian Empire was the opposite of the experience of Crimean Tatars. Before their arrival in southern Moldova and the neighbouring area in the Odessa region of Ukraine at the end of the eighteenth century and beginning of the nineteenth century, the Gagauz populated the Dobrudja region, which is now a part of Romania and Bulgaria.⁵⁵ The reason for the mass resettlement of the Gagauz was their adherence to Orthodox Christianity in the Ottoman Empire at the time of the Russo–Turkish wars. The Russian tsars proclaimed themselves defenders of the Orthodox people in the Balkans. They were involved, including militarily, in Balkan politics and provided lands for the

Gagauz in Bessarabia. The forced migration of the Gagauz was a critical juncture in the formation of their pro-Russian political culture because this event had a significant effect on the lives of the absolute majority of Gagauz.⁵⁶

World War II and the mass expulsion of Crimean Tatars by Stalin, which affected the life of almost every Crimean Tatar, reinforced their cultural differentiation from Russians and Ukrainians. During the war, about 10% of the Crimean Tatars, a large part of them voluntarily, joined the German military and police units and fought against Soviet partisans. Although comparable proportions of Crimean Tatars served in the Soviet Army and belonged to Soviet partisans in Crimea, the proportion of Tatars collaborating with the Nazis was much higher than the proportions of collaborators among Russians and Ukrainians.⁵⁷

Available data indicate that about 13–15% of Russians and Ukrainians in Crimea perished as a result of the Nazi genocidal policy, which included mass executions, deprivation of elementary medical care and deliberate starvation of civilians and POWs. Approximately 5–7% of Russians and Ukrainians in Crimea who served in the Soviet Army were killed fighting Nazi Germany and its allies. About 8–10% of Russians and Ukrainians in Crimea were sent by the Nazi wartime administration to forced labour.⁵⁸ The Nazis, who regarded not only Russians and Ukrainians but also Crimean Tatars as racially inferior, planned to colonise Crimea and exterminate or expel most of the local population to Siberia.⁵⁹

At the end of the war Stalin collectively punished the Crimean Tatars because a fraction of them had collaborated with the Nazis. All Crimean Tatars were deported along with other ethnic minorities by force from Crimea to Central Asia in 1944, and the autonomous status of the Crimean Tatar Republic was eliminated. A significant proportion of Crimean Tatars, estimated at more than 20%, perished during the deportation and in its aftermath as a result of lack of food and medical care.⁶⁰ Like the experience of Russians and Ukrainians during the war in Crimea, the experience of Crimean Tatars during their mass deportation and life in exile had a profound effect on the evolution of their political culture.

Both the ethnic cleansing of Crimean Tatars and the historical experience of Russians and Ukrainians during World War II and subsequent mythologisation of these events on both sides fueled political tensions between Crimean Tatars and Russians, as well as pro-Russian Ukrainians. The deportation and exile experience, which lasted until the end of the Soviet Union, led to the emergence of a Crimean Tatar national movement. This movement, which initially focused on the demand of return to Crimea, received strong support among Crimean Tatars by the time the Soviet Union collapsed.⁶¹ Similarly, pro-communist and pro-Russian parties and politicians in Crimea often invoked the historical experience during World War II to justify their political demands, in particular, in their stance towards Crimean Tatars.

The experience of Gagauz during Romanian rule in Moldova in 1918–40 and during World War II was more negative than the experience of Moldovans. After Bessarabian Moldova became a part of Romania, Gagauz suffered discrimination, because the Romanian government favoured Moldovans, whom it considered to be Romanians. The Romanian government was an ally of Nazi Germany, and it had a large degree of autonomy in its policy in Moldova, including the Gagauz region, during World War II. The wartime policy of the Romanian government discriminated

against and repressed the Gagauz, Russian and Ukrainian minorities. The Gagauz cited this experience as a reason for their opposition to Moldovan independence and possible unification of Moldova with Romania at the beginning of the 1990s.⁶²

The Gagauz were one of the least educated and impoverished groups in Moldova during Romanian rule in 1918–40 and 1941–44. After Moldova came under Soviet rule as a result of World War II, a significant number of Gagauz benefited from the Soviet policy of mass education and economic development in the region. This experience helped to foster pro-communist and pro-Russian political values among Gagauz.

Many Gagauz died during a post-war famine when Bessarabian Moldova again came under Soviet rule. However, like the artificial famine in Eastern Ukraine in the 1930s, the famine in Moldova did not transform the political culture of Gagauz into an anti-Russian and anti-Soviet one. Because of the totalitarian nature of the Soviet state, which controlled all institutions with the exception of the family, maintained strict censorship and spread propaganda that prevented dissemination of information about this event, many Gagauz were unaware of the extent of the famine beyond their own personal experience or experience of their families. In contrast to many Crimean Tatars in exile in Central Asia, who attributed the extremely high death rate from infectious diseases and lack of food to Soviet policy towards them, the Gagauz attributed the famine to natural causes and to the destruction of agriculture and industry that was brought by World War II, and they did not associate the famine with Soviet policy towards them.

Prior political culture, which set different patterns of worldview among Crimean Tatars and Gagauz, explains the different effects of these historical experiences on the evolution of their political values. This interpretation is supported by a comparison of the historical experience of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz with the historical experience of Bulgarians. Like the Gagauz, many Bulgarians resettled from the Ottoman Empire to Bessarabian and Crimean regions of the Russian Empire because of their persecution as Orthodox Christians. This critical juncture fostered pro-Russian political culture among Bulgarians in the Russian Empire. Therefore, the deportation of the whole population of Bulgarians (more than 12,000) along with Crimean Tatars from Crimea to other regions of the Soviet Union because of charges of collaboration with the Nazi occupation authorities during World War II did not transform the political culture of Bulgarians into an anti-Russian or anti-Soviet one either.

There is a lack of detailed studies of precise mechanisms that transmitted the historical experience of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz from one generation to another. As noted, this problem especially concerns the Gagauz. However, available data make it possible to outline a general mechanism of such transmission.

Socialisation in the family and religion played crucial roles in the cultural transmission of the historical experiences of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz. Family was a key institution that was not directly controlled by the Soviet state and the Communist Party. Each consecutive generation was brought up on personal, folk and historical stories told by their parents and grandparents. As a result, the contemporary population of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz retained their distinct historical memory, or a modern interpretation of past historical experiences that were to a certain extent simplified, distorted and mythologised in the process of inter-generational transmission.

Muslim and Orthodox organised religions helped to transfer the distinct political culture of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz from one generation to another in the Ottoman Empire, the Russian Empire and to some extent in the Soviet Union. The role of family and religion was especially important in this respect in the Ottoman Empire and the Russian Empire because the absolute majority of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz were illiterate. For example, according to the 1897 census data, only 7% of Gagauz were literate.⁶³ Even though religion was persecuted in the Soviet Union, the absolute majority of Gagauz and Crimean Tatars preserved their religious beliefs. For example, the 1995 World Values Survey showed that 98% of the respondents from Gagauzia identified themselves as Orthodox Christians.

The education system in the Soviet Union promoted convergence of political cultures of different ethnic groups. However, in the case of Crimean Tatars this mechanism of socialisation reinforced their differences from Russians, Ukrainians and Gagauz. Soviet historical textbooks and literary texts emphasised military conflicts between Crimean Tatars and Ukrainian and Russian Cossacks, slave raids by Crimean Tatars and military help provided by the Russian government to the Gagauz, Bulgarian and other Orthodox Christian people of the Ottoman Empire. The history of World War II in Soviet textbooks presented Crimean Tatars as Nazi collaborators and ignored the ethnic cleansing of Crimean Tatars by the Soviet government. Soviet mass media and popular culture promoted similar historical images of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz.⁶⁴

Conclusion

This article has examined differing political orientations of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz. Crimean Tatars in Ukraine consistently expressed anti-communist and anti-Russian political preferences, while Gagauz in Moldova and the Odessa region of Ukraine showed strong support for pro-communist and pro-Russian parties and politicians and a union with Russia.

Analysis of a variety of data from surveys, elections and referendums demonstrates that the different political orientations of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz in post-communist Ukraine and Moldova reflect different political cultures. Comparative historical analysis indicates that distinct historical experiences of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz in the Ottoman Empire, the Russian Empire, Romania and the Soviet Union led to the emergence and evolution of the divergent political cultures of these ethnic groups. Adherence to Islam, the institution of slavery in the Ottoman Empire, experience of ethnic cleansing and long-term exile in the Soviet Union were crucial factors in the formation of the anti-Russian and anti-communist political values of Crimean Tatars. In contrast, the persecution of Gagauz because of their adherence to Orthodox Christianity in the Ottoman Empire, their mass migration to the Russian Empire, and experience during Romanian and Soviet rule fostered pro-Russian and pro-communist values among Gagauz.

The distinct historical experiences of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz were transferred to the post-communist period with the help of socialisation in the family, organised religion and mass education. However, further studies of precise mechanisms of the

emergence and transmission of the political cultures of these ethnic minorities are needed because previous research on this issue is very limited.

This study, which shows a significant role of cultural legacies in shaping political behaviour and attitudes among Crimean Tatars and Gagauz in Ukraine and Moldova, has implications for researching ethnic and regional conflicts and cleavages in other countries. Because other ethnic groups have political divisions and historical legacies that are similar to the differences in political orientation and historical experience of Crimean Tatars and Gagauz, the comparative analysis of these two Turkic-speaking peoples is helpful in understanding the influence of cultural factors on ethnic conflicts and cleavages in other countries.

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- 59 See Götz Aly & Susanne Heim, *Architects of Annihilation: Auschwitz and the Logic of Destruction*, translated by A. G. Blunden (Princeton, Princeton University Press, 2002); Kosyk, *Ukraina i Nimmechyna u Drugij Svitovij Vijn*.
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- 61 See Bekirova, *Krymskotatarskaya problema v SSSR*.
- 62 Crowther, 'Moldova', p. 335.
- 63 King, *The Moldovans*, p. 211.
- 64 Personal observations.